

PASSIVIZATION IN GOJRI LANGUAGE

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By

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CERTIFICATE

This is to certify that the dissertation entitled “Passivization in Gojri” submitted by Mr. Utkarsh Mishra, in partial fulfilment of the requirements for the award of the degree of Master of Arts in Linguistics at the Centre for Linguistics, School of Language, Literature and Culture Studies, Jawaharlal Nehru University, New Delhi, has not been previously submitted, in part or in full, for any other degree of this university or any other university/institution.

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This dissertation titled “Passivization in Gojri” submitted by Mr.Utkarsh Mishra for the award of Master of Arts in Linguistics is an original work. It has not been submitted so far in part or in full for any other degree or diploma of any university or institution.

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SYMBOLS AND ABBREVIATIONS

1	1 st Person
2	2 nd Person
3	3 rd Person
ABL	Ablative Case
ACC	Accusative Case
ADJ	Adjective
ADV	Adverb
CAUS	Causative
COM	Comitative Case
COMP	Comparative
CPM	Conjunct Participle Marker
CV	Conjunct Verb
DAT	Dative Case
DEM	Demonstrative Case
ERG	Ergative Case
F	Feminine
FUT	Future
GEN	Genitive
H	Honorific
HAB	Habitual
IMP	Imperative
IMPF	Imperfect
INF	Infinitive
INST	Instrumental Case
LOC	Locative Case
M	Masculine
N	Noun
NEG	Negative
NF	Non-Finite
NOM	Nominative Case
MOD	Modal Verb
OBL	Oblique Form
PASS	Passive
PERF	Perfect
Pl	Plural
PRS	Present Tense
PST	Past Tense
S	Singular
SEM	Semblative Case
SFM	Stem Forming Marker

ABSTRACT

This dissertation analyses passivization in Gojri, an Indo-Aryan language spoken across North India and parts of Pakistan. It focuses on the morphosyntactic structure of passive constructions in the language based on data collected through elicitation, observation, and interviews with native speakers. The study demonstrates that Gojri employs a periphrastic passive strategy in which the lexical verb appears in a participial form and combines with the auxiliary /ja-/ ‘go’, which functions as a passive marker through delexicalization. The analysis highlights the interaction of passivization with tense, aspect, mood, agreement, ergativity, and argument structure. It is shown that passive formation involves the demotion or suppression of the agent and the promotion of the patient/theme, resulting in changes to grammatical relations and information structure. The study further reveals that verbal agreement in passive constructions is controlled by the promoted patient and reflects person, number, and gender features. The behaviour of passive constructions with transitive, ditransitive, reflexive-like, and impersonal constructions is examined, along with the constraints on passivization of intransitive verbs. Particular attention is given to valency reduction, ergative alignment, and the distribution of passive morphology across different tense-aspect-mood environments. The study also demonstrates that passive constructions serve important discourse functions such as agent backgrounding, event foregrounding, and generic interpretation. By documenting and analysing passive constructions in Gojri, this dissertation contributes to the description of Gojri grammar and to the broader understanding of passive systems in Indo-Aryan languages.

Keywords: Passivization, Gojri, Indo-Aryan languages, Periphrastic passive, Valency reduction, Agreement

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CHAPTER I

INTRODUCTION

1.1 Background and Significance

The study of passive constructions occupies an important position in linguistic theory, particularly in the domains of syntax, morphology, semantics, and discourse. Passivization is a grammatical process that alters the relationship between arguments in a clause by promoting the patient or theme and demoting or suppressing the agent. As a result, passive constructions provide valuable insights into argument structure, grammatical relations, agreement, valency, and information structure. Owing to their interaction with a wide range of grammatical phenomena, passive constructions have been extensively studied across languages and remain central to discussions in linguistic typology and theoretical linguistics.

Gojri, an Indo-Aryan language spoken across several regions of North India and Pakistan, exhibits a rich passive system that interacts with agreement, tense-aspect-mood marking, ergativity, and discourse functions. Like many Indo-Aryan languages, Gojri employs a periphrastic passive strategy involving a participial verb form and an auxiliary derived from the verb ‘go’. However, despite the structural complexity and linguistic significance of passive constructions in the language, Gojri remains relatively underrepresented in descriptive and theoretical literature. In particular, the morphosyntactic behaviour of passive constructions and their interaction with argument structure have received little systematic attention.

The present study aims to document and analyse passivization in Gojri in detail, situating it within the broader context of Indo-Aryan linguistics and cross-linguistic studies of voice and argument structure. The investigation examines the formation of passive constructions and their interaction with agreement, tense-aspect-mood categories, ergative alignment, valency-changing processes, and incapable constructions. Particular attention is given to the morphosyntactic behaviour of passive and incapable constructions, their distribution across different grammatical environments, and their role in shaping argument structure and information flow within the language. By focusing on passivization in Gojri, this dissertation contributes to the documentation of an under-described Indo-Aryan language and provides empirical evidence for broader theoretical discussions concerning voice, argument structure, and morphosyntactic variation.

1.2 Overview of Gojri and the Gujjar Community

Gojri is an Indo-Aryan language spoken primarily by the Gujjar community across several regions of North India and Pakistan. Within India, the language is widely spoken in Jammu and Kashmir, Himachal Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Punjab, Haryana, Rajasthan, Delhi, and parts of Uttar Pradesh. The distribution of Gojri reflects the historical mobility of the Gujjar community, many of whom have traditionally practiced pastoralism and seasonal migration.

The present study is based on data collected from native speakers of Gojri in the university campus. The region is situated in the northernmost part of India and is characterized by considerable linguistic diversity, with languages such as Kashmiri, Dogri, Pahari, Punjabi, Urdu, and Gojri being spoken across different communities. Within this multilingual environment, Gojri continues to serve as an important marker of ethnic and cultural identity among the Gujjar population.

The wide geographical distribution of Gojri has resulted in dialectal variation across regions. Nevertheless, speakers share a common linguistic core that distinguishes Gojri from neighbouring Indo-Aryan languages. The language occupies a significant position in the sociocultural life of the Gujjar community and has increasingly attracted scholarly attention for its unique grammatical and typological features.

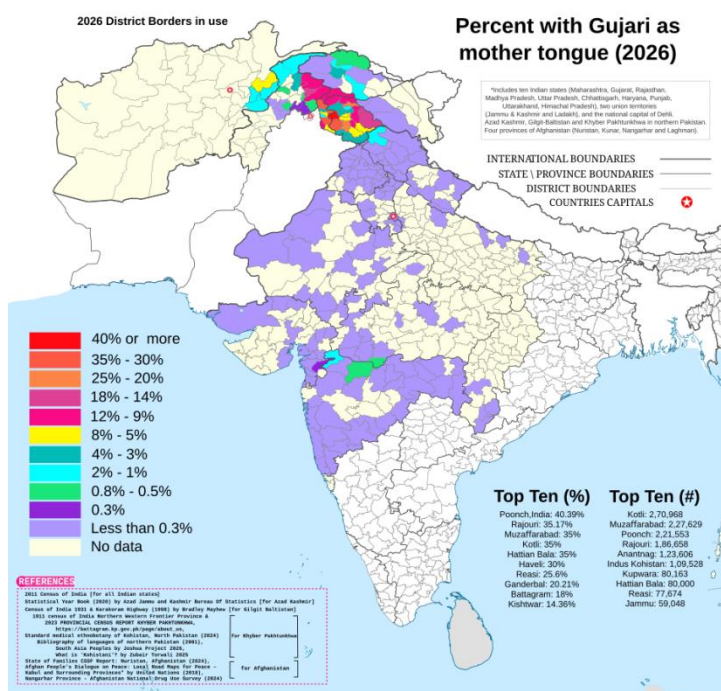


Figure 1:Geographical Distribution of Gojri Speakers in South Asia

Figure 1 illustrates the geographical distribution of Gojri (Gujari) speakers across India, Pakistan, and Afghanistan. The map indicates that Gojri is spoken over a wide geographical area, with the highest concentrations of speakers found in the Jammu region of Jammu and Kashmir, particularly in districts such as Poonch, Rajouri, Reasi, and parts of the Pir Panjal region. According to the data presented in the map, the districts with the highest percentage of Gojri speakers include Poonch (40.39%), Rajouri (35.17%), Muzaffarabad (35%), Kotli (35%), and Hattian Bala (35%). These figures demonstrate the strong presence of the language in the northwestern Himalayan belt and adjoining regions.

Significant Gojri-speaking populations are also distributed across Himachal Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Punjab, Haryana, Rajasthan, Gujarat, and parts of Pakistan and Afghanistan, reflecting the historical mobility and pastoral traditions of the Gujjar community. The widespread distribution of Gojri across different political and geographical regions has contributed to dialectal variation within the language while maintaining a shared linguistic identity among its speakers.

The concentration of Gojri speakers in the northwestern Himalayan region situates the language within a linguistically diverse environment characterized by contact with languages such as Kashmiri, Dogri, Punjabi, Pahari, and Urdu. The broad geographical spread of Gojri highlights its importance as a major Indo-Aryan language associated with the Gujjar community and provides the sociolinguistic context for the present study on passivization in Gojri.

1.2.1 Historical and Cultural Significance

The Poonch region of Jammu and Kashmir occupies an important place in the historical and cultural life of the Gujjar community, one of the largest ethnic groups in the region. Situated in the Pir Panjal range, Poonch has historically functioned as a significant route connecting the Kashmir Valley with the plains of Punjab and the northwestern Himalayan regions. Owing to its geographical location, the region has long served as a site of cultural interaction, migration, and linguistic exchange among different communities.¹

The Gujjars and Bakarwals constitute a substantial proportion of the population of Poonch and neighbouring districts such as Rajouri. Traditionally associated with pastoralism and transhumance, many members of the community continue to practice seasonal migration between lower and higher Himalayan pastures.² This historical mobility has played an important role in shaping the linguistic and cultural identity of Gojri speakers. The Poonch region is also among the areas with the highest concentration of Gojri-speaking populations,

making it an important centre for the preservation and transmission of the language.¹

Culturally, the Gujjar community of Poonch is known for its rich oral traditions, folk songs, storytelling practices, and community-based social organization. Gojri folk music, including traditional baits, narrative songs, and pastoral songs, forms an important component of cultural expression and serves as a means of preserving collective memory and community history.³ Oral literature continues to play a significant role in the transmission of cultural knowledge, values, and linguistic heritage across generations.⁵

The cultural life of the Gujjar community is closely connected with pastoral traditions, local customs, religious practices, and seasonal movement patterns. Despite increasing urbanization and language contact with Urdu, Pahari, Kashmiri, Dogri, and Punjabi, Gojri continues to function as an important marker of ethnic identity and cultural belonging. The linguistic vitality of Gojri in regions such as Poonch contributes significantly to the preservation of the community's distinct cultural heritage and provides an important context for the present study.⁴

¹ Poonch District Administration, Government of Jammu & Kashmir, District Profile and History, <https://poonch.nic.in/>.

² Government of India, Press Information Bureau, The Gujjars and Bakerwals of Jammu and Kashmir (2010).

³ Sumantra Bose (2009), *Kashmir: Roots of Conflict, Paths to Peace*, Harvard University Press.

⁴ Poonch District, India: Demographic and Linguistic Profile.

⁵ Javaid Rahi, *Gujjars and Bakerwals of Jammu and Kashmir: Socio-Economic Characteristics*.

Figure 2 depicts Gojri folk singers dressed in traditional Gujjar attire. The image highlights distinctive elements of Gujjar material culture, including embroidered head coverings, colourful garments, and elaborate silver jewellery. Such traditional attire is commonly associated with cultural performances, community celebrations, and folk music traditions among Gojri-speaking communities.⁶



Figure 2: Gojri Folk Singers in Traditional Attire (Source: Ramesh Lalwani, Flickr, 2009)

Folk singing occupies an important place in Gujjar cultural life and serves as a medium for the transmission of oral traditions, historical narratives, pastoral experiences, and community values. Gojri folk songs, often performed collectively, contribute to the preservation of linguistic and cultural heritage by passing traditional knowledge from one generation to the next. Through music and oral performance, the Gujjar community maintains a strong connection to its history, identity, and language.

The continued practice of Gojri folk music reflects the close relationship between language and culture. As carriers of oral literature and traditional expression, folk singers play a significant role in preserving and promoting the Gojri language in contemporary society.

⁶ Ramesh Lalwani, Gojri Folk Singers, Flickr, 2009, https://www.flickr.com/photos/ramesh_lalwani/4029625364

1.2.2 Linguistic Classification of Gojri

Gojri is the principal language of the Gujjar community and serves as an important medium of communication among Gujjar populations across North India and Pakistan. Linguistically, Gojri belongs to the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-Iranian subfamily within the Indo-European language family.

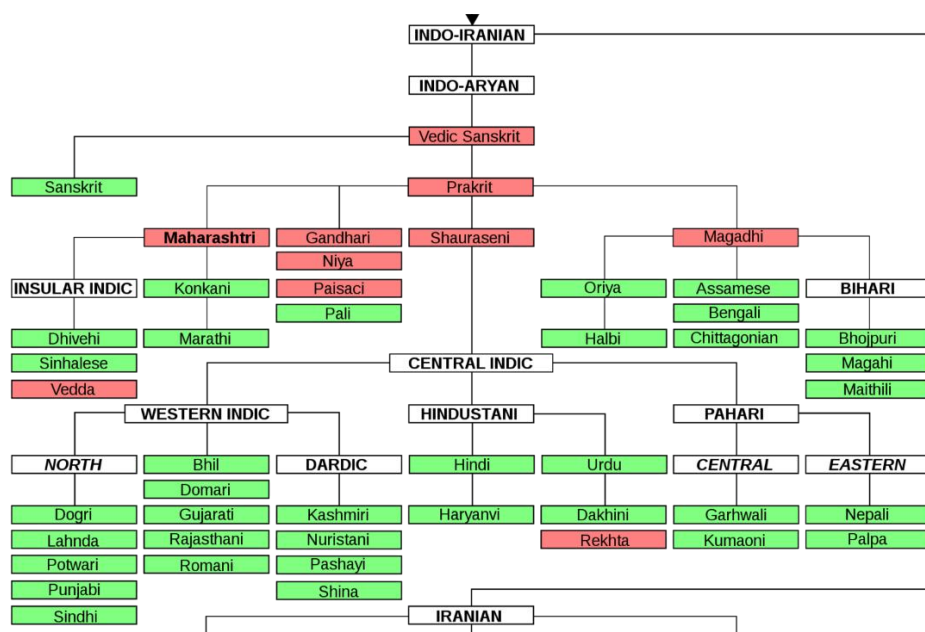


Figure 7: Linguistic Classification of Gojri. Source: Wikimedia Commons

According to George A. Grierson's Linguistic Survey of India (LSI), Gojri is classified within the Indo-Aryan family and exhibits close affinities with the Rajasthani group of languages. Many scholars have noted that Gojri shares significant phonological, lexical, and grammatical features with Rajasthani varieties while also displaying influences from neighbouring languages such as Punjabi, Dogri, Pahari, Kashmiri, and Urdu due to prolonged language contact.⁷

Ethnologue designates Gojri with the ISO 639-3 code gju and identifies it as a living Indo-Aryan language spoken by the Gojjar community across India and Pakistan. Although Gojri does not enjoy widespread official status, it continues to function as an important marker of ethnic and cultural identity among its speakers.⁸

⁷ George A. Grierson (ed.), Linguistic Survey of India, *Vol. IX, Part IV (1909).

⁸ Ethnologue, Gojri (gju), 27th edition.

In the Poonch district of Jammu and Kashmir, Gojri exists within a multilingual environment where speakers commonly use Gojri alongside Urdu, Pahari, Dogri, Kashmiri, Hindi, and English. Such multilingual competence has contributed to extensive language contact while simultaneously supporting the continued use of Gojri in domestic, cultural, and community domains. Despite increasing influence from dominant regional languages, Gojri remains an important vehicle for oral traditions, folk literature, and community interaction in the region.

The widespread geographical distribution of Gojri has resulted in dialectal variation across different regions. Nevertheless, the language maintains a coherent grammatical structure and a shared linguistic identity among its speakers, making it an important subject for linguistic documentation and analysis.

1.2.3 Gojri Literature and Oral Tradition

Gojri possesses a rich tradition of oral literature that has historically served as an important medium for preserving the cultural heritage, social values, and collective memory of the Gujjar community. For centuries, the language was primarily transmitted through oral forms such as folk songs, baits (traditional narrative poetry), folktales, proverbs, riddles, pastoral songs, and religious recitations. These oral traditions continue to play a significant role in maintaining linguistic and cultural continuity among Gojri-speaking communities across different regions.

Among the most prominent forms of Gojri oral literature is the bait, a traditional poetic form that often reflects themes of love, migration, pastoral life, social relations, heroism, and community history. Folk songs and narrative performances remain an integral part of cultural gatherings, festivals, and community events, particularly in the Jammu and Kashmir region. Through these oral forms, linguistic knowledge and cultural traditions are transmitted across generations.

Although Gojri literature developed primarily as an oral tradition, the twentieth century witnessed a gradual expansion of written literary activity. Modern Gojri literature now includes poetry, short stories, folk literature collections, dictionaries, translations, essays, and scholarly works. Literary organizations such as the Jammu and Kashmir Academy of Art, Culture and Languages have played an important role in promoting Gojri writing and publication.

Several writers and poets have contributed significantly to the development of modern Gojri literature. Among them, Dr. Rafiq Anjum is regarded as one of the leading figures of

the contemporary Gojri literary movement, particularly for his contributions to Gojri poetry and literary scholarship.¹¹ Similarly, Dr. Javaid Rahi has made substantial contributions to the documentation of Gojri language, folklore, oral traditions, and lexicography¹⁰ through numerous publications and cultural research projects.⁹

Recent years have witnessed increasing efforts toward the preservation and promotion of Gojri through literary publications, translation projects, cultural programmes, radio broadcasts, folk music recordings, and digital media platforms. These developments have contributed to the growth of modern Gojri literature while simultaneously preserving its rich oral heritage.

⁹ Javaid Rahi, Lok Virso: Gojri Folk Literature, Gurjar Desh Charitable Trust.

¹⁰ Javaid Rahi, Gojri Dictionary, Jammu and Kashmir Academy of Art, Culture and Languages.

¹¹ Rafiq Anjum, contributions to modern Gojri poetry and literature.

CHAPTER II

REVIEW OF LITERATURE AND RESEARCH METHODOLOGY

2.1. Review of Literature

Passivization is a fundamental syntactic operation in many languages that involves transforming an active sentence into a passive one. This linguistic phenomenon has garnered significant attention from linguists across various theoretical frameworks. In this literature review, I will explore key perspectives, debates, and advancements in our understanding of passivization.

1. Transformational Grammar Perspective:

Traditional transformational grammar frameworks, notably Chomsky's Generative Grammar, provided initial insights into passivization. Passivization was seen as a rule-driven transformation where the object of an active sentence becomes the subject in the passive construction. Early studies, such as those by Chomsky (1957), laid the groundwork for understanding passivization as a syntactic operation governed by transformational rules.

2. Functional Linguistics Perspective:

Functional linguists, influenced by the work of Halliday (1967) and Hopper (1987), view passivization through the lens of functional motivations. Passivization is often analyzed in terms of its discourse and pragmatic functions, such as topicalization, focus marking, or agent suppression. Studies in this vein, like those by Givón (1984) and Hopper & Thompson (1980), emphasize the communicative purposes served by passivization beyond mere syntactic transformation.

3. Cross-linguistic Variation:

A significant area of research focuses on cross-linguistic variation in passivization strategies. Languages exhibit diverse patterns of passivization, including morphological, syntactic, and analytic strategies. Studies by Shibatani (1985) and Dixon (1991) have contributed extensively to understanding how different languages encode passive constructions and the typological variation in passivization patterns.

4. Cognitive and Processing Perspectives:

Cognitive linguistics and psycholinguistics offer insights into how passivization is processed and understood by speakers. Research in this area investigates factors such as cognitive load, salience of agents, and processing efficiency in passive vs. active constructions. Work by MacDonald et al. (1994) and Ferreira (2003) sheds light on the cognitive mechanisms

underlying the comprehension and production of passive sentences.

5. Theoretical Debates:

Passivization has sparked theoretical debates concerning its underlying mechanisms and constraints. Issues such as the role of thematic roles, the status of the passive subject, and the interaction between syntax and semantics are subjects of ongoing discussion. Notable contributions include Levin & Rappaport Hovav's (1995) argument structure approach and Goldberg's (1995) construction grammar framework, which offer alternative perspectives on passivization.

6. Diachronic Perspectives:

Historical linguistics investigates the diachronic development of passive constructions in languages over time. Studies in this domain trace the emergence and evolution of passive morphology and syntactic patterns, shedding light on the grammaticalization processes involved. Research by Traugott & Dasher (2002) and Bybee et al. (1994) provides insights into the historical pathways of passivization in various languages.

7. Neurocognitive Studies:

Recent advancements in neurocognitive research have enabled the investigation of neural correlates associated with processing passive constructions. Through techniques such as fMRI and ERP, researchers explore brain regions involved in processing passivization and its interaction with other linguistic and cognitive functions. Work by Bornkessel-Schlesewsky et al. (2015) and Hagoort (2005) offers valuable insights into the neural basis of passivization.

In conclusion, passivization remains a rich and multifaceted linguistic phenomenon that continues to attract scholarly attention from diverse theoretical and methodological perspectives. From its theoretical underpinnings to its cognitive and neurobiological foundations, research on passivization offers a comprehensive understanding of how language structures and processes information.

2.1.1 Passivization in Indo-Aryan Languages

Passivization, a syntactic operation whereby the object of an active sentence becomes the subject in a passive construction, has been a subject of extensive investigation within the realm of Indo-Aryan languages. This literature review aims to provide insights into the specificities, variations, and theoretical perspectives concerning passivization in this linguistic domain.

The feature of voice throughout languages has been a segment of exquisite interest for linguists throughout decades. The study of voice dates back at least to the Sanskrit grammar of

Panini (ca 500 BC). In his monumental work ‘Ashtadhyayi’, the distinction between active and middle meaning associated with Sanskrit verbs were described. Thus, voice can be considered as one of the most ancient topics in the tradition of descriptive grammar (Klaiman, 1991).

Many definitions of voice have been given by linguists which pertains to understanding the system of voice and tries to set a foundation on which further features are explored upon. Dayley (1983) suggests voice as an overt grammatical category basically pertaining to transitive verbs. He suggests that the function of voice is to indicate the relationship the verb has with its arguments. A change in voice involves a disruption of the basic transitive relationship, along with overt morphological or syntactic markers to mark the change.

Crystal (1980: 378) (as cited in Datta H., 2019) states that voice is a “category used in the grammatical description of sentence or clause structures primarily with reference to verbs, to express the way sentences may alter the relationship between the subject and object of a verb”. Crystal noted a major distinction between the active and passive construction – the grammatical subject is the actor in the active statement whereas in the passive, the goal of the action is the grammatical subject.

Das (2019) claims even though the literatures on passives are haphazard and sketchy for English, seven rules of Passivisation are mostly correctly formulated:

1. the verb should be a transitive one,
2. change the place of subject and object
3. change the verb of active sentence into participle form (V3),
4. insert a ‘be’ verb after the changed object in passive sentence
5. put the tense of the main verb of active sentence on the ‘be’ verb,
6. make the agreement of changed object and the ‘be’ verb, and
7. but a by-phrase before the changed subject in the passive sentence

Furthermore, Das (2019) goes ahead to analyse these rules applying them on Indian languages. Some observations he makes are, (1) and (2) are not required at all in Indo-Aryan languages, primarily because the sentences even with intransitive verbs can be transformed into passive and there is absolutely no need to change the places of subject and object for the sentences with transitive and di-transitive verbs. The rule number (3) of passive formation change the verb of active sentence into participle form (V3) seems to be universal. For the passive rule given in (4), Indian languages seem to opt for ‘go’ (in Hindi also (and Gojri)) instead of ‘be’ in many Indian languages. The rules (5) & (6) apply more or less in the similar manner as in English, meaning (5) takes care of tense and aspect markings of the

active sentence and (6) ensures the matching of the agreement feature of the direct object and the verb because the subject is overtly case marked with ‘-se’ in the passive sentences. Das (2019) points out in case of Hindi and Kannauji, the -jaa verb is delexicalized and added to the sentence as a Passivisation strategy.

Klaiman (1991) suggests active voice as encoding the doing of an action. This is suggested on the basis of action notionally devolving from the standpoint of the most dynamic part involved in the situation, generally the Agent. Passive voices include the action notionally devolving from the standpoint of a non-dynamic, typically static participant in the situation such as Patient of the transitive verb. Reason being the verb portrayed as ‘signifying the state of being acted upon’ or suffering the effects of the action. He also brings in the notion of the third or the middle voice.

Pointing to the theta grid, Carnie (2023) says, the actives have an agent and a theme, whereas passives lack the agent role in their theta grids.

Chandra and Sahoo (2013) point out the canonical passive formations having the following properties (Givon, 1979; Siewierska, 2005; Shibatani, 2006; Comrie, 1989 as mentioned in Chandra and Sahoo, 2013):

- i. It contrasts with another construction, the active.
- ii. The subject of the active corresponds to a non-obligatory oblique phrase of the passive or is not overtly expressed (but only implied).
- iii. The subject of the passive, if there is one, corresponds to the direct object of the active.
- iv. The construction displays some special morphological marking of the verb.
- v. The construction is pragmatically restricted relative to the active.

A typical example of a regular passive vis-à-vis its active counterpart is given in (1)-(2).

(1) John saw Mary.

(2) Mary was seen (by John)

Previous studies on Indo-Aryan languages have examined passive constructions from a variety of perspectives, including morphosyntactic structure, historical development, discourse-pragmatic functions, sociolinguistic variation, cognitive processing, and theoretical approaches to voice and argument structure. Research on languages such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Gujarati, Bengali, Marathi, and Kashmiri has contributed substantially

to our understanding of passive formation and its role in grammar. The present review surveys major scholarly contributions to the study of passivization in Indo-Aryan languages and identifies the theoretical and descriptive issues relevant to the analysis of Gojri. The discussion is organized around several key themes, including morphosyntactic patterns, ergative alignment, discourse functions, diachronic developments, sociolinguistic variation, cognitive perspectives, and theoretical approaches to passive constructions.

1. Morphosyntactic Patterns:

Indo-Aryan languages exhibit a rich array of morphosyntactic patterns in passivization. Some languages, such as Hindi-Urdu and Bengali, employ morphological markers to indicate passive voice, while others, like Marathi and Gujarati, rely more on syntactic reordering. Studies by Masica (1991) and Hook (1976) have extensively documented these morphosyntactic patterns, shedding light on the diversity of passive constructions across Indo-Aryan languages.

2. Ergative-Absolutive Systems:

Certain Indo-Aryan languages, notably those with ergative-absolutive alignment, present unique challenges and insights regarding passivization. Kashmiri, for instance, exhibits ergative morphology in passive constructions, leading to intricate syntactic and morphological interactions. Research by Koul (2003) and Kachru (1980) delves into the implications of ergative alignment on passivization strategies in these languages.

3. Discourse Functions and Pragmatic Considerations:

Passivization in Indo-Aryan languages often serves specific discourse and pragmatic functions. These include topicalization, focus marking, and agent suppression, among others. Studies by Bhatia (1993) and Jain (2010) explore the pragmatic motivations behind passive constructions in languages like Punjabi and Gujarati, highlighting the role of discourse structure and information packaging.

4. Diachronic Perspectives:

Historical studies provide insights into the diachronic development of passive constructions in Indo-Aryan languages. Research by Hook (1981) and Deshpande (1996) traces the historical evolution of passive morphology and syntactic patterns, illustrating how these constructions have evolved over time and reflecting broader grammaticalization

processes within the language family.

5. Sociolinguistic and Register Variations:

Passivization patterns may vary across different registers and sociolinguistic contexts within Indo-Aryan languages. Studies by Pandharipande (1991) and Singh (2015) investigate how factors such as formality, prestige, and register influence the use of passive constructions in languages like Hindi and Bengali, highlighting the sociolinguistic dimensions of passivization.

6. Cognitive and Processing Perspectives:

Cognitive and psycholinguistic research in Indo-Aryan languages explores how passivization is processed and understood by speakers. Studies by Vasisht et al. (2010) and Mishra (2016) investigate factors such as cognitive load, processing efficiency, and discourse coherence in passive vs. active constructions, offering insights into the cognitive mechanisms underlying passivization.

7. Theoretical Debates and Frameworks:

Theoretical debates surrounding passivization in Indo-Aryan languages revolve around issues such as the nature of passive subjects, the role of animacy and thematic roles, and the interaction between syntax and semantics. Frameworks such as Government and Binding Theory and Role and Reference Grammar provide analytical tools for exploring these issues. Work by Mahajan (1994) and Bhatt (2005) contributes to theoretical debates within these frameworks, offering insights into the syntactic and semantic properties of passive constructions in Indo-Aryan languages.

In summary, passivization in Indo-Aryan languages represents a multifaceted linguistic phenomenon shaped by morphosyntactic, pragmatic, sociolinguistic, and cognitive factors. Research in this area not only enhances our understanding of specific languages but also contributes to broader theoretical debates within linguistics.

2.2. Research Methodology

2.2.1. Research Design

The present study adopts a descriptive and analytical approach to investigate passivization and incapable constructions in Gojri. Unlike traditional fieldwork conducted in the speech community, the data for this study were collected through direct interaction with native Gojri speakers residing at Jawaharlal Nehru University (JNU), New Delhi. The research combines methods of linguistic elicitation, grammaticality judgement, and qualitative analysis to document and examine the morphosyntactic properties of passive constructions in Gojri.

2.2.2 Participants

The primary data for this study were collected from native speakers of Gojri originating from the Jammu and Kashmir region, where Gojri is widely spoken. The principal language consultants for the study were Mr. Saqib Ishfaq and Mr. Amjad, both native speakers of Gojri. Their linguistic intuitions, translations, and grammaticality judgements constituted the primary source of data used in this dissertation.

2.2.3 Data Collection Methods

a. Linguistic Elicitation

The primary method of data collection was linguistic elicitation. Hindi sentences were presented to the native speakers, who were first asked to translate them into Gojri. Subsequently, they were asked whether passive counterparts of the translated sentences were possible in Gojri. Where grammatical passive constructions were available, the speakers provided the corresponding passive forms. Additional follow-up questions were used to verify grammaticality, alternative constructions, and semantic interpretations.

Particular attention was given to collecting examples involving different verb types, including transitive, ditransitive, reflexive-like, and incapable constructions, as well as passive constructions occurring in different tense-aspect-mood environments.

b. Grammaticality Judgements

Native speakers were consulted regarding the acceptability of passive constructions and alternative sentence forms. This method was especially useful in identifying constraints on passivization and determining whether particular constructions were grammatical, marginal, or unacceptable in Gojri.

c. Audio Documentation

All elicitation sessions were recorded using the audio recording facility available on a mobile phone. The recordings provided a permanent record of the linguistic data and enabled repeated examination of pronunciation, morphology, and syntactic structures.

2.2.4 Data Processing and Analysis

The recorded data were carefully reviewed multiple times following the elicitation sessions. The Gojri sentences were transcribed phonetically using the International Phonetic Alphabet (IPA) following the conventions of the Bloch and Trager transcription system where appropriate. The collected examples were subsequently glossed using standard interlinear morphemic glossing conventions to facilitate linguistic analysis and cross-linguistic comparison.

The analysis focused on identifying patterns of passive formation, agreement, tense-aspect-mood interactions, ergative alignment, valency-changing processes, and discourse functions. Particular attention was also given to the structural properties of incapable constructions and their relationship to passive constructions.

2.2.5 Ethical Considerations

The study adhered to standard ethical principles of linguistic research. The language consultants participated voluntarily and were informed about the purpose of the study and the intended academic use of the data. Their consent was obtained prior to recording and data collection. The data were used solely for research and educational purposes.

2.2.6 Limitations of the Study

Due to logistical constraints, data collection was conducted through native speakers residing at the university rather than within the speech community itself. While this limited opportunities for broader sociolinguistic observation, the use of native speakers from Gojri-speaking regions provided reliable linguistic data for the analysis of passivization and incapable constructions.

2.3. Description of the Dataset

The dataset used in this study consists of elicited Gojri sentences collected from

native speakers through translation tasks and grammaticality judgement sessions. The primary objective of data collection was to investigate the formation and behaviour of passive constructions in Gojri across different grammatical environments.

The dataset contains both active and passive sentence pairs. Active sentences were initially presented in Hindi and subsequently translated into Gojri by native speakers. The consultants were then asked to provide passive counterparts wherever possible and to indicate whether passive formation was grammatical or unacceptable. This procedure enabled the collection of naturally acceptable passive constructions as judged by native speakers.

The collected data include examples involving a variety of verb classes and syntactic environments, including:

- a) Transitive constructions
- b) Ditransitive constructions
- c) Reflexive-like constructions
- d) Agentive and agentless passives
- e) Passive constructions with overt and suppressed agents
- f) Tense distinctions (present, past, and future)
- g) Aspectual distinctions (habitual, progressive, and perfective)
- h) Mood-related constructions (imperative, modal, conditional, and incapable constructions)
- i) Agreement patterns involving person, number, and gender
- j) Interactions between passivization and ergative alignment

In addition to grammatical passive constructions, the dataset also contains examples that were judged unacceptable by native speakers. Such examples were included in the analysis to identify structural constraints on passive formation, particularly with respect to intransitive verbs and other restricted environments.

The final dataset consists of approximately 90 elicited sentences, including both active and passive constructions. These examples form the empirical basis for the analysis presented in the subsequent chapters.

2.4. Analytical Framework

The present study adopts a descriptive and functional approach to the analysis of passivization in Gojri. The analysis is primarily grounded in concepts from descriptive

linguistics, morphosyntax, and typological studies of voice and argument structure. Rather than testing a particular formal syntactic theory, the study seeks to identify and describe the structural properties of passive constructions as they occur in the language.

The analysis of passive constructions is based on the assumption that passivization is an argument-structure changing operation. Following cross-linguistic studies of voice, passive constructions are examined in terms of the relationship between semantic roles and grammatical functions. Particular attention is paid to the demotion or suppression of the agent and the promotion of the patient/theme, as these constitute the defining characteristics of passive constructions across languages.

The study further draws upon the concept of valency, which refers to the number and type of arguments associated with a verb. Since passive constructions typically alter the argument structure of a clause, the analysis investigates how passivization affects verbal valency in Gojri and whether passive formation results in the reduction or restructuring of arguments.

Another important aspect of the analysis concerns grammatical agreement. The collected data are examined to determine how passive constructions interact with person, number, and gender agreement. Special attention is given to identifying the argument that controls agreement in passive clauses and comparing these patterns with those found in active constructions.

The study also examines the interaction between passivization and ergative alignment. Since many Indo-Aryan languages display ergative characteristics in certain grammatical environments, the analysis investigates how ergative marking behaves under passivization and whether passive constructions alter the alignment patterns found in active clauses.

In addition, passive constructions are analysed across different tense-aspect-mood (TAM) categories. The investigation focuses on the distribution of passive morphology in habitual, progressive, perfective, future, imperative, modal, and incapable constructions. This analysis helps determine the extent to which passive formation is productive across the verbal system of Gojri.

Beyond morphosyntactic structure, the study considers the discourse-pragmatic functions of passivization. Passive constructions are analysed with respect to agent suppression, patient foregrounding, topicality, information structure, and event-focused interpretations. This perspective allows for an understanding of passivization not only as a grammatical process but also as a discourse strategy.

Finally, the analysis of incapable constructions is carried out alongside passive constructions in order to examine their structural similarities and differences. Particular attention is given to the morphosyntactic behaviour of these constructions, their interaction with argument structure, and their role within the broader system of voice-related constructions in Gojri.

Through the combined examination of argument structure, valency, agreement, ergativity, tense-aspect-mood marking, and discourse functions, the present study aims to provide a comprehensive account of passivization and incapable constructions in Gojri.

CHAPTER III

PASSIVIZATION IN GOJRI: FORMATION AND STRUCTURAL PROPERTIES

3.1 Introduction

Passivization is a grammatical process through which the syntactic prominence of participants within a clause is reorganized. In a typical active construction, the agent occupies the subject position and functions as the most prominent argument of the clause. Passive constructions alter this relationship by demoting or suppressing the agent and promoting the patient or theme to a more prominent grammatical position. As a result, passive constructions affect not only the morphosyntactic structure of a clause but also its information structure, discourse organization, and interpretation.

Cross-linguistically, passive constructions exhibit considerable variation in their structural realization. Some languages employ dedicated passive morphology, while others make use of auxiliary verbs, participial forms, case marking, or combinations of these strategies. Within the Indo-Aryan language family, passive constructions have attracted significant scholarly attention because of their interaction with ergativity, agreement, argument structure, and tense-aspect-mood systems. Studies on languages such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Bengali, Gujarati, and Kashmiri have demonstrated that passivization in Indo-Aryan languages frequently involves the use of participial verb forms together with auxiliary elements, often derived from lexical verbs that have undergone grammaticalization and semantic bleaching.

The present chapter examines the formation and structural properties of passive constructions in Gojri. The analysis is based on primary linguistic data collected from native speakers and seeks to identify the morphosyntactic mechanisms involved in passive formation. Particular attention is given to the role of participial morphology, auxiliary constructions, argument-structure changes, and the behaviour of grammatical relations under passivization.

One of the central questions addressed in this chapter concerns the means by which passive constructions are morphologically encoded in Gojri. The data reveal that passive formation involves the interaction of a participial lexical verb and the auxiliary verb /ja-/ ‘go’. In passive constructions, the auxiliary no longer denotes physical motion but functions as a grammatical marker of passive voice. This behaviour parallels passive formation strategies

reported for several other Indo-Aryan languages and provides important evidence for the grammaticalization of lexical verbs into auxiliary elements.

The chapter further investigates the consequences of passivization for argument structure. Passive constructions in Gojri exhibit the characteristic properties associated with passive voice cross-linguistically, including the demotion of the agent, the promotion of the patient, and the optional realization of the agent phrase. The analysis demonstrates that passivization leads to a restructuring of grammatical relations while simultaneously reducing the prominence of the agent within the clause. Such changes have important implications for agreement patterns, valency, and discourse organization.

In addition to examining canonical passive constructions, this chapter explores the behaviour of passivization across different verb classes. The analysis considers transitive, ditransitive, and reflexive-like constructions, as well as the constraints governing the passivization of intransitive predicates. Through this investigation, the chapter seeks to determine the extent to which passive formation is productive within the verbal system of Gojri and to identify any structural restrictions on its application.

The discussion presented in this chapter is organized as follows. Section 3.2 examines the formation of passive constructions in Gojri and describes the morphological components involved in passive formation. Section 3.3 analyses the changes in argument structure associated with passivization, including agent demotion and patient promotion. Section 3.4 investigates different types of passive constructions attested in the language, while Section 3.5 discusses the structural constraints on passive formation. Section 3.6 examines the relationship between passivization and valency reduction. The chapter concludes with a summary of the principal findings and prepares the ground for the subsequent discussion of agreement, ergativity, tense-aspect-mood marking, and incapable constructions in later chapters.

3.2 Passive Formation in Gojri

Passive formation in Gojri involves a systematic reorganization of grammatical relations within a clause. Similar to many other Indo-Aryan languages, the passive construction alters the syntactic prominence of the participants involved in an event by reducing the prominence of the agent and foregrounding the patient or affected participant. This process results in significant changes in argument structure, agreement patterns, and the overall organization of information within the clause.

The data collected for the present study indicate that Gojri primarily employs a periphrastic strategy for passive formation. Rather than using a dedicated inflectional passive morpheme attached directly to the verbal root, passive constructions are formed through the combination of a participial form of the lexical verb and an auxiliary element derived from the verb /ja-/ ‘go’. The resulting construction functions as a passive predicate and expresses the affectedness of the patient while simultaneously reducing the syntactic prominence of the agent.

From a structural perspective, passive formation in Gojri involves two closely related processes. First, the agent of an active clause is either demoted to an oblique position or omitted altogether. Second, the object or patient of the active clause assumes a more prominent grammatical role in the passive construction. As a consequence, the patient becomes the primary argument with which verbal agreement is established. This restructuring of grammatical relations constitutes one of the defining characteristics of passive constructions in the language.

The passive system of Gojri shares several properties with passive constructions reported for other Indo-Aryan languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Gujarati, and Rajasthani. In these languages, passive formation commonly involves the use of a participial verb form together with an auxiliary element historically derived from a lexical verb meaning ‘go’. Das (2019) observes that in Hindi the auxiliary *ja-* has undergone delexicalization and no longer contributes its original lexical meaning of motion when used in passive constructions. Instead, it functions as a grammatical marker of passive voice. The Gojri data reveal a parallel development, suggesting that the auxiliary *ja-* has similarly undergone semantic bleaching and grammaticalization in passive environments.

An important characteristic of passive formation in Gojri is the optionality of the agent phrase. While active clauses generally require the overt expression of the agent, passive clauses frequently omit it when the identity of the agent is unknown, irrelevant, recoverable from context, or intentionally backgrounded. Consequently, passive constructions are frequently employed when the speaker wishes to focus on the event itself or on the participant affected by the event rather than on the performer of the action.

The productivity of passive morphology in Gojri extends beyond simple transitive clauses. The collected data demonstrate that passive constructions occur with a variety of verb classes and can be formed across different tense-aspect-mood environments. Passive predicates are attested in present, past, and future contexts, as well as in habitual, progressive, perfective, modal, imperative, and incapable constructions. This wide distribution indicates

that passivization constitutes a productive grammatical process rather than a restricted or marginal construction in the language.

Furthermore, passive formation in Gojri has important consequences for verbal valency. Since the agent is demoted or suppressed, the number and status of core arguments associated with the predicate are altered. The passive construction therefore functions as a valency-changing operation, reducing the syntactic prominence of the external argument while increasing the prominence of the internal argument. Such changes in valency are accompanied by corresponding changes in agreement and argument realization, which will be discussed in subsequent sections.

3.2.1 Active–Passive Correspondence

The relationship between active and passive clauses provides the most direct evidence for the operation of passivization in Gojri. Active and passive constructions describe the same event, but differ in the way participants are represented within the clause. While the semantic content of the event remains largely unchanged, the grammatical relations associated with the participants undergo significant restructuring.

In active constructions, the agent functions as the subject and occupies the most prominent grammatical position in the clause. The patient or theme appears as the object and receives the action performed by the agent. In passive constructions, however, the patient becomes the most prominent participant, while the agent is either demoted to an oblique phrase or omitted altogether. Consequently, passive constructions shift attention away from the performer of the action and toward the affected participant or the event itself.

The active-passive correspondence in Gojri can be illustrated through the following example.

Active	ram-ne	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	
	Ram.3.SG-ERG	letter.3.SG.F	write.F.PST.INDF	
	‘Ram wrote a letter.’			
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram koļu	lik ^h i	gyi
	letter.3.SG.F.NOM	Ram.3.SG OBL	write.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	‘The letter was written by Ram.’			

A comparison of the two constructions reveals several important structural differences. First, the active subject ‘ram-ne’ loses its privileged grammatical status in the passive construction and appears in an oblique phrase marked by ‘koļu’. Second, the object ‘čitt^hi’

assumes a more prominent position in the passive clause. Third, the lexical verb occurs in a participial form and combines with the auxiliary ‘gyi’, which functions as a marker of passive voice. Despite these structural differences, both clauses describe the same event of letter writing.

A similar correspondence is observed in ditransitive constructions.

Active	ustad-ne	nikka-na	kaṇi	sunayi
	teacher.3.SG-ERG	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F	hear.CAUS.F.PST
	‘The teacher narrated a story to the children.’			
Passive	nikka-koḷu	kaṇi	sunayi	gyi
	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F.NOM	hear.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	‘A story was narrated to the children.’			

The passive construction again demonstrates the suppression of the agent and the foregrounding of the event. The teacher is no longer overtly expressed, yet the sentence remains fully grammatical and semantically complete. This indicates that the passive construction does not require the overt realization of the agent.

The correspondence between active and passive clauses in Gojri therefore involves a systematic reorganization of grammatical relations rather than a change in propositional meaning. The semantic participants remain the same, but their syntactic realization is altered. The agent loses its central position, while the patient becomes the structurally prominent participant. This restructuring constitutes the defining characteristic of passive formation in the language.

The examples presented above demonstrate that active and passive clauses in Gojri are related through a regular morphosyntactic process. Passivization preserves the core meaning of the event while modifying the grammatical prominence of its participants. The following section examines the morphological mechanisms that make this transformation possible, focusing specifically on the participial morphology employed in passive constructions.

3.2.2 Participial Morphology

One of the most important morphological characteristics of passive constructions in Gojri is the use of participial verb forms. The data reveal that passive predicates are not formed directly from finite verbal forms. Instead, the lexical verb undergoes a morphological change and appears in a participial form before combining with the auxiliary *ja-* ‘go’. Consequently, participial morphology constitutes an essential component of passive formation in the language.

Cross-linguistically, participles are non-finite verbal forms that exhibit both verbal and adjectival properties. In Indo-Aryan languages, participles frequently occur in passive constructions and often function as the primary carrier of lexical meaning, while tense-aspect-mood information is expressed through auxiliary elements. Das (2019) observes that the conversion of the lexical verb into a participial form is one of the most stable and widespread characteristics of passive formation across Indo-Aryan languages. The Gojri data strongly support this observation.

A comparison of active and passive constructions demonstrates that finite verbal morphology found in active clauses is systematically replaced by participial morphology in passive constructions.

Example 1:

Active	<i>sima</i>	<i>roṭi</i>	<i>bəṇave</i>
	Sima.3.SG.F.NOM	bread.3.SG.F.ACC	make.3.SG.PRS.INDF
	‘Sima makes bread.’		
Passive	<i>roṭi</i>	<i>bəṇayi</i>	<i>jaye</i>
	bread.3.SG.F.NOM	make.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘Bread is made.’		

In the active clause, the predicate occurs as the finite form *bəṇave* ‘makes’. In the passive construction, however, the lexical verb appears as the participial form *bəṇayi*, after which the auxiliary *jaye* is added. The lexical meaning ‘make’ remains unchanged, while the grammatical function of the construction changes from active to passive.

Example 2:

Active	ve	gəɾ	bəɳave
	they.3.PL.NOM	house.SG.ACC	make.3.PRS.INDF
	'They build house.'		
Passive	gəɾ	bəɳayo	jaye
	house.SG.NOM	make.M.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	'Houses are built.'		

The passive predicate again contains a participial verb form. The finite verbal morphology associated with the active clause is absent, and the lexical verb surfaces in the participial form bəɳayo before the passive auxiliary.

Example 3:

Active	ve	ʊs-na	pəsa	de
	they.3.PL.NOM	he.3.SG-DAT	money.ACC	give.3.PL.PRS.INDF
	'They give him money.'			
Passive	ʊs-na	pəsa	ditto	jaye
	he.3.SG-DAT	money.NOM	money.ACC	give.3.PL.PRS.INDF
	'Money is given to him.'			

The lexical verb de- 'give' similarly appears in a participial form (ditto) in the passive construction. The finite morphology associated with the active clause is replaced by a participial form followed by the auxiliary jaye.

The examples above demonstrate that participial morphology is not an incidental feature of passive constructions but rather a systematic requirement of passive formation in Gojri. Across different verb classes, including monotransitive and ditransitive predicates, the lexical verb consistently appears in a participial form before the passive auxiliary. The participle therefore functions as the principal carrier of lexical meaning within the passive predicate.

Another noteworthy property of the participial forms is their sensitivity to agreement. The collected data indicate that participles frequently display gender and number agreement with the promoted patient rather than with the demoted agent. Feminine patients trigger forms such as lıkhı, sonayı, and bəɳayı, whereas masculine patients trigger forms such as bəɳayo, kholyo, and ditto. This behaviour further confirms the close relationship between participial morphology and the argument structure of passive constructions.

The evidence therefore suggests that participial morphology occupies a central position within the passive system of Gojri. Passive formation is not achieved merely through the addition of an auxiliary; rather, it requires a morphological restructuring of the lexical verb itself. The participial form serves as the foundation upon which passive morphology is built, while the auxiliary *ja-* contributes the grammatical interpretation of passive voice. The following section examines the role of this auxiliary in greater detail.

3.2.3 The Auxiliary *ja-* and its Delexicalization in Passive Formation

One of the most significant morphosyntactic characteristics of passive constructions in Gojri is the use of the auxiliary verb *ja-* ‘go’. The collected data reveal that passive predicates are not formed solely through participial morphology but require the presence of an auxiliary element that follows the participial verb. This auxiliary functions as a marker of passive voice and constitutes a central component of passive formation in the language.

Cross-linguistically, verbs denoting motion frequently undergo grammaticalization and develop auxiliary functions. Within Indo-Aryan languages, verbs meaning ‘go’ have often evolved beyond their original lexical meaning and participate in the expression of aspect, modality, futurity, and passive voice. Hook (1991) notes that Indo-Aryan languages make extensive use of compound verbal constructions involving auxiliary verbs, many of which originate from lexical verbs and later acquire grammatical functions. Similar observations are made by Butt and Lahiri (2012), who argue that auxiliary constructions in Indo-Aryan languages frequently emerge through processes of reanalysis and grammaticalization.

Historically, *ja-* functions as a lexical verb meaning ‘to go’. In its lexical usage, the verb denotes movement from one location to another and serves as the main predicate of the clause. However, the Gojri data demonstrate that in passive constructions *ja-* no longer retains this lexical meaning. Instead, it functions as an auxiliary whose primary role is to indicate passive voice. This development represents a process of delexicalization or semantic bleaching, whereby a lexical item gradually loses its original semantic content and acquires a grammatical function.

Das (2019), while discussing passive constructions in Hindi, argues that the passive auxiliary *jānā* ‘go’ must undergo delexicalization in order to facilitate passive derivation. According to Das, the auxiliary no longer expresses physical movement in passive constructions and instead functions as a grammatical marker of passive voice. The Gojri data

analysed in the present study provide strong evidence for a parallel development.

The distinction between lexical and passive uses of *ja-* can be illustrated through the following examples.

Lexical Use of *ja-*

ram	bazar	gyo
Ram.3.SG.M.NOM	market.LOC	go.M.PST
'Ram went to the market.'		

In this sentence, *gyo* functions as an independent lexical verb and retains its original meaning of movement. The clause denotes a physical event involving motion from one location to another.

The following example illustrates the passive use of the same verbal form.

Passive Use of *ja-*

Passive	dərvajo	kholyo	jaye go
	door.3.SG.M.NOM	open.M.PTCP	go.PASS.FUT.M
'The door will be opened.'			

Unlike the previous example, *jaye go* does not express motion. The sentence does not describe the door as physically moving. Instead, the auxiliary contributes a passive interpretation and indicates that the event of opening will occur in the future. The lexical meaning 'go' is therefore absent.

The passive auxiliary consistently occurs alongside participial verb forms throughout the dataset. In the following Gojri examples:

- i. roṭi bəṇayi jaye
- ii. kaṇi sonayi gyi
- iii. ʊs-na pəsa dɪtto jaye
- iv. gəṛ bəṇayo jaye

In all of these examples, the auxiliary follows a participial lexical verb and contributes a passive interpretation. The meaning of physical movement associated with the lexical verb 'go' is entirely absent. Consequently, these constructions provide strong evidence that *ja-* has undergone semantic bleaching and now functions as a grammatical auxiliary.

A further indication of delexicalization is that the passive auxiliary cannot function independently in these constructions. It requires the presence of a preceding participial verb

and forms a single grammatical unit together with it. The passive meaning emerges from the combination of the participial lexical verb and the auxiliary rather than from either component in isolation.

The auxiliary also appears across multiple tense-aspect-mood environments within the dataset. Present passive constructions employ forms such as *jaye*, past passive constructions employ forms such as *gyi*, and future passive constructions employ forms such as *jaye go*. This distribution demonstrates that the auxiliary has become fully integrated into the verbal system of Gojri and participates in the expression of tense and aspect while simultaneously marking passive voice.

The development observed in Gojri is consistent with broader grammaticalization processes reported across Indo-Aryan languages. Hook (1991) argues that lexical verbs in Indo-Aryan frequently evolve into auxiliary elements through repeated use in compound verbal constructions. Similarly, Das (2019) demonstrates that Hindi passive constructions require the delexicalization of *jānā* ‘go’, while Bhatt (2003) notes that passive constructions in Indo-Aryan languages commonly involve auxiliary structures derived from earlier lexical sources.

The Gojri evidence strongly supports this analysis. The auxiliary *ja-* no longer contributes lexical meaning in passive constructions and instead functions as a grammatical marker of passive voice. Passive formation therefore depends upon the interaction of two components: the participial lexical verb, which carries the lexical meaning of the event, and the delexicalized auxiliary *ja-*, which contributes the passive interpretation. Together, these elements form the core structural mechanism through which passive constructions are realized in Gojri.

3.3 Argument Structure in Passive Constructions

Argument structure refers to the number and type of participants that a predicate requires for the expression of a complete event. In linguistic theory, arguments are generally associated with semantic roles such as Agent, Patient, Theme, Experiencer, Goal, and Recipient. These semantic roles are realized syntactically as grammatical relations such as subject, object, and indirect object. Consequently, the argument structure of a clause determines how participants are organized and interpreted within a sentence.

Passivization is widely recognized as an argument-structure changing operation because it alters the mapping between semantic roles and grammatical relations. While the semantic participants involved in an event remain unchanged, their syntactic realization is

reorganized. The agent, which occupies the most prominent grammatical position in an active clause, loses its privileged status in the passive construction. Simultaneously, the patient or theme acquires greater syntactic prominence. This restructuring of grammatical relations constitutes one of the defining properties of passive voice cross-linguistically.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions involve systematic modifications to argument structure. Active clauses typically contain an overt agent that functions as the subject and controls the event expressed by the verb. The patient, on the other hand, appears as the object and receives the effect of the action. During passivization, this relationship is altered. The patient becomes the most prominent participant in the clause, while the agent is either demoted to an oblique phrase or omitted altogether.

The distinction between semantic roles and grammatical relations is particularly important in understanding passive constructions. Although passivization changes the syntactic organization of the clause, it does not alter the underlying semantic roles associated with the participants. The agent remains the performer of the action, and the patient remains the affected participant. What changes is the grammatical encoding of these roles. Thus, passive constructions preserve the semantic structure of the event while simultaneously restructuring its syntactic representation.

The argument-structure changes associated with passivization have important consequences for other components of grammar. Since grammatical relations are reorganized, passive constructions often trigger corresponding changes in agreement patterns, case marking, and valency. In many languages, including Gojri, verbal agreement is no longer controlled by the agent but by the promoted patient. Similarly, the suppression or demotion of the agent results in a reduction of the verb's syntactic valency. These changes demonstrate that passivization operates at multiple levels of grammatical structure rather than merely affecting verbal morphology.

The Gojri data further reveal that argument-structure changes are not restricted to simple transitive constructions. Similar restructuring processes are observed in ditransitive constructions, where recipients, themes, and agents interact in more complex ways. In such cases, passive formation affects the hierarchical organization of arguments and determines which participant receives syntactic prominence. This behaviour confirms that passivization in Gojri functions as a productive mechanism for reorganizing grammatical relations across different construction types.

The analysis presented in this chapter adopts the view that passive constructions in Gojri involve a reassignment of grammatical prominence rather than a change in semantic

content. The event itself remains unchanged; however, the perspective from which the event is presented is significantly altered. By reducing the prominence of the agent and increasing that of the patient, passive constructions provide speakers with an alternative strategy for structuring information and organizing discourse.

3.3.1 Agent Demotion and Suppression

One of the defining characteristics of passive constructions cross-linguistically is the reduction of agent prominence. Unlike active clauses, where the agent functions as the grammatical subject and occupies the most prominent syntactic position, passive constructions reorganize the clause in such a way that the agent loses its privileged status. The Gojri data demonstrate that passivization consistently affects the realization of the agent and results in either agent demotion or agent suppression.

In active constructions, the agent is generally expressed overtly and functions as the initiator or performer of the event. The agent occupies the subject position and serves as the primary argument of the clause. Passive constructions, however, reduce the syntactic prominence of this participant. Rather than functioning as the grammatical subject, the agent is either expressed through an oblique phrase or omitted entirely. Consequently, the passive construction shifts attention away from the performer of the action and towards the affected participant or the event itself.

a) Agent Demotion: Subject to Oblique

The first strategy involves the demotion of the active subject to an oblique phrase. In such cases, the agent remains semantically recoverable and may be overtly expressed, but it no longer occupies the primary grammatical position within the clause.

Active	ram-ne	čitt ^{hi}	lik ^{hi}	
	Ram.3.SG.M-ERG	letter.3.SG.F.ABS	write.F.PST	
	‘Ram wrote a letter.’			
Passive	čitt ^{hi}	ram-koḷu	lik ^{hi}	gyi
	letter.3.SG.F.NOM	Ram.3.SG.M OBL	write.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS.PST
	‘The letter was written by Ram.’			

In the active clause, ram-ne functions as the grammatical subject and agent of the event. Following passivization, the same participant appears in an oblique phrase marked by koḷu. Although Ram continues to be interpreted as the writer of the letter, he no longer

occupies the most prominent grammatical position in the clause. The patient čitt^{hi} instead becomes the syntactically prominent participant.

A similar pattern is observed in other passive constructions.

Passive	roṭi	sima-koḷu	bəṇayi	jaye
	bread.3.SG.F.NOM	Sima.3.SG.F OBL	make.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘Bread is made by Sima.’			

The passive construction again demonstrates agent demotion. The agent remains semantically present but is no longer encoded as the grammatical subject.

b) Agent Suppression

A second and more frequent strategy observed in the dataset is agent suppression. In such constructions, the agent is omitted altogether while the sentence remains both grammatical and semantically complete.

Passive	kaṇi	sunayi	gyi
	story.3.SG.F.NOM	hear.CAUS.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS.PST
	‘The story was narrated.’		

No agent is overtly expressed in this sentence. Nevertheless, the event remains fully interpretable. The listener understands that someone narrated the story, but the identity of the narrator is irrelevant, unknown, or intentionally backgrounded.

Another example is presented below.

Passive Construction

Passive	dərvajo	kholyo	jaye go
	door.3.SG.M.NOM	open.M.PTCP	go.PASS.FUT.M
	‘The door will be opened.’		

The agent responsible for opening the door is not expressed. The sentence focuses exclusively on the event and the affected participant.

Agent suppression is particularly common in passive constructions involving generic, institutional, or event-oriented interpretations. In such contexts, speakers are often more interested in describing what happened than in identifying who performed the action.

c) Optionality of the Agent

An important characteristic of passive constructions in Gojri is that the expression of

the agent is optional rather than obligatory. The same passive event can be expressed either with an overt agent or without one.

Passive with Agent

Passive	nıkkə-na	kaɲi	ustad koɭu	sunayɪ	gyi
	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F.NOM	teacher OBL	hear.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS.PST
	‘A story was narrated to the children by the teacher.’				

Passive without Agent

Passive	nıkkə-koɭu	kaɲi	sunayɪ	gyi
	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F.NOM	hear.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	‘A story was narrated to the children.’			

The omission of the agent does not affect the grammaticality of the clause. Instead, it alters the informational focus of the construction. The version containing the overt agent foregrounds the performer of the event, whereas the agentless version foregrounds the event itself and the affected participants.

The evidence presented above demonstrates that passivization in Gojri systematically reduces agent prominence. The active subject either undergoes demotion to an oblique phrase or is omitted entirely from the clause. This behaviour confirms that passive constructions in Gojri conform to one of the central cross-linguistic properties of passive voice: the backgrounding of the agent and the foregrounding of the patient or event. The following section examines the complementary process of patient promotion and its consequences for grammatical relations and agreement.

3.3.2 Passive and Valency Reduction\

One of the most significant consequences of passivization is its effect on verbal valency. In linguistic theory, valency refers to the number and type of arguments that a predicate requires in order to express a complete event. The concept was originally developed by Tesnière (1959), who compared verbal arguments to the bonds formed by chemical elements and proposed that different verbs possess different valency capacities. A verb may be monovalent, divalent, or trivalent depending on the number of arguments associated with it.

Valency-changing operations alter the argument structure of a predicate by increasing, decreasing, or rearranging the number and prominence of arguments. Passive constructions are commonly classified as valency-decreasing operations because they reduce the syntactic

prominence of the agent and alter the realization of core arguments (Comrie, 1988; Dixon & Aikhenvald, 2000). Although the semantic participants involved in the event remain unchanged, the passive construction modifies their grammatical expression and reorganizes the structure of the clause.

Shibatani (1985) argues that passive constructions are characterized by the defocusing of the agent and the increased prominence of the patient. Similarly, Klaiman (1991) notes that passive voice serves to suppress or background the external argument while foregrounding another participant. This process results in a reduction of the agent's grammatical status and consequently alters the valency structure of the clause. From a typological perspective, passive constructions therefore represent one of the most widespread mechanisms through which languages reduce argument prominence and restructure grammatical relations (Kulikov, 2011).

The Gojri data provide clear evidence that passivization functions as a valency-reducing operation. In active constructions, the agent constitutes a core argument of the predicate and occupies the most prominent grammatical position. During passivization, however, the agent is either demoted to an oblique phrase or omitted entirely. As a result, the patient becomes the most prominent argument within the clause.

The following example illustrates this restructuring.

Active	ustad-ne	nikka-na	kaṇi	sonayi
	teacher.3.SG-ERG	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F	hear.CAUS.F.PST
	‘The teacher narrated a story to the children.’			
Passive	nikka-koḷu	kaṇi	sonayi	gyi
	child.PL-DAT	story.3.SG.F.NOM	hear.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	‘A story was narrated to the children.’			

A comparison of these constructions demonstrates a clear reduction in argument prominence. In the active clause, three participants are overtly represented: the teacher (Agent), the children (Recipient), and the story (Theme). In the passive construction, the agent is no longer expressed, leaving only the recipient and theme overtly realized. Although the speaker still understands that someone narrated the story, the performer of the action is no longer grammatically encoded.

This reduction becomes even more apparent in passive constructions where the agent is entirely suppressed.

Active	ram-ne	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	
	Ram.3.SG.M-ERG	letter.3.SG.F.ABS	write.F.PST	
	‘Ram wrote a letter.’			
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram-koļu	lik ^h i	gyi
	letter.3.SG.F.NOM	Ram.3.SG.M OBL	write.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS.PST
	‘The letter was written by Ram.’			

In the active construction, the predicate licenses two principal arguments: the agent (ram) and the patient (čitt^hi). Following passivization, the agent is omitted and only the patient remains overtly expressed. Consequently, the clause exhibits a reduction in syntactic valency despite preserving the semantic content of the event.

The passive constructions found in the dataset demonstrate that valency reduction in Gojri does not involve the elimination of semantic participants but rather their reorganization within the grammatical structure of the clause. The agent continues to exist conceptually as the performer of the action, yet it loses its status as a core grammatical argument. This distinction between semantic and syntactic valency has been widely recognized in the typological literature (Payne, 1997; Dixon & Aikhenvald, 2000).

The Gojri data further indicate that valency reduction is closely linked to the discourse functions of passive constructions. By suppressing or demoting the agent, speakers are able to foreground the patient or focus attention on the event itself. Consequently, passive constructions simultaneously function as valency-changing operations and as discourse strategies for managing information structure.

The evidence therefore suggests that passivization in Gojri constitutes a systematic mechanism of valency reduction. Through the demotion or suppression of the agent and the increased prominence of the patient, passive constructions reorganize argument structure while preserving the underlying semantic relations of the event. This interaction between valency, argument structure, and grammatical relations forms one of the central morphosyntactic properties of the passive system in Gojri.

3.4 Types of Passive Constructions

Passive constructions constitute one of the most widely attested voice phenomena across the languages of the world. Although passive constructions share certain core properties, they do not always exhibit a uniform structural realization. Typological studies

have shown that languages may possess multiple passive constructions differing in the realization of agents, the promotion of patients, and the restructuring of grammatical relations (Shibatani, 1985; Siewierska, 1984; Dixon, 1994). Consequently, passivization should not be viewed as a single construction but rather as a family of related constructions that share the common function of reducing the prominence of the agent while increasing the prominence of another participant in the clause.

According to Dixon (1994), a canonical passive construction typically exhibits four major characteristics: (i) it is derived from a transitive clause, (ii) the patient or object of the active clause becomes the primary argument of the passive clause, (iii) the agent is demoted to a peripheral position or omitted altogether, and (iv) the construction contains explicit passive marking. Similar observations have been made by Shibatani (1985), who argues that passive constructions are best understood as mechanisms for agent defocusing and patient foregrounding.

The passive constructions found in Gojri conform closely to these cross-linguistic characteristics. The data reveal that passivization systematically affects the realization of arguments by reducing the syntactic prominence of the agent and foregrounding the patient or affected participant. At the same time, Gojri displays considerable flexibility in the realization of passive constructions. Depending on the communicative needs of the speaker, the agent may be overtly expressed, demoted to an oblique phrase, or omitted entirely. Similarly, passive constructions are attested not only with simple transitive predicates but also with ditransitive and reflexive-like constructions.

The structural relationship between active and passive constructions in Gojri may be represented schematically as follows:

Active Construction

Subject (Agent) + Object (Patient) + Finite Verb

This represents the canonical active pattern in which the agent functions as the grammatical subject and occupies the most prominent position within the clause.

Passive Construction

Object (Patient) + Agent (koḷu) + Participial Verb + Auxiliary (ja-)

or

Agent (koḷu) + Object (Patient) + Participial Verb + Auxiliary (ja-)

or

Object (Patient) + Participial Verb + Auxiliary (ja-)

These patterns illustrate the principal structural possibilities available in Gojri passive constructions. In all three patterns, the finite verb of the active clause is replaced by a participial form followed by the auxiliary *ja-*, which functions as a passive marker. The patient acquires increased prominence within the clause, whereas the agent is either expressed through an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu* or omitted entirely.

The first passive pattern represents what may be termed the canonical passive construction. Here, both the patient and the demoted agent are overtly realized. The second pattern demonstrates that constituent ordering is relatively flexible and that the oblique agent phrase may precede the patient without affecting the passive interpretation. The third pattern represents the agentless passive, in which the agent is entirely suppressed and the clause focuses primarily on the event or the affected participant.

The existence of these alternative realizations indicates that passive constructions in Gojri are not restricted to a single syntactic configuration. Rather, they form a network of related constructions whose choice depends upon discourse considerations, information structure, and the communicative intentions of the speaker. Similar variation between agentive and agentless passives has been reported in numerous languages and is generally regarded as one of the defining properties of passive voice (Siewierska, 1984; Klaiman, 1991).

The analysis of the collected data reveals five major passive types in Gojri: Canonical Passive, Agentive Passive, Agentless Passive, Ditransitive Passive, and Reflexive-like Passive. Each of these constructions exhibits the fundamental properties of passive voice while differing in the realization of arguments and the degree to which the agent is backgrounded. The following sections examine these passive types in detail.

3.4.1 Canonical Passive

Canonical passive constructions represent the prototypical passive pattern in Gojri. Typologically, canonical passives are characterized by patient promotion, agent demotion, and the presence of dedicated passive morphology (Shibatani, 1985; Siewierska, 1984). The Gojri data exhibit all of these properties. The object of the active clause becomes the most prominent argument of the passive clause, while the lexical verb appears in a participial form followed by the passive auxiliary *ja-*.

Active	<i>nikka-ne</i>	<i>gənd</i>	<i>fēki</i>
	child.SG.M-ERG	ball.SG.F.ABS	throw.F.PST
	‘The child threw the ball.’		

Passive	gend	fēki	gəyi
	ball.SG.F.NOM	throw.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS.PST
	‘The ball was thrown.’		

These constructions represent the most basic passive pattern found in the language. The event remains semantically unchanged, but the grammatical prominence shifts from the agent to the patient.

3.4.2 Agentive Passive

Agentive passives are passive constructions in which the demoted agent remains overtly expressed. Although the agent no longer functions as the grammatical subject, it remains semantically identifiable through an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu*. Such constructions are used when the speaker wishes to foreground the affected participant while still identifying the performer of the action.

Passive	čɪt̪ʰi	ram koḷu	lɪk̪ʰi	gyi
	letter.3.SG.F.NOM	Ram.3.SG OBL	write.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	‘The letter was written by Ram.’			

Passive	dərvajo	sita koḷu	k̪ʰole	gyo
	door.SG.M.NOM	Sita OBL	open.M.PTCP	go.M.PASS.PST
	‘The door was opened by Sita.’			

The agent remains semantically recoverable but no longer occupies the privileged grammatical position associated with active clauses. The patient continues to function as the primary argument of the construction.

3.4.3 Agentless Passive

Agentless passive constructions constitute the most frequent passive type in the dataset. In these constructions, the agent is completely omitted. Such constructions are typically employed when the identity of the agent is unknown, irrelevant, predictable, or intentionally backgrounded.

Passive	dərvajo	k̪ʰolo	gyo
	door.SG.M.NOM	open.M.PTCP	go.M.PASS.PST
	‘The door was opened.’		

Passive pʊl bəɳayo gyo
 bridge.SG.M.NOM make.M.PTCP go.M.PASS.PST
 ‘The bridge was built.’

Passive it kam kryo jaye
 here.LOC work.M.NOM do.M.PTCP go.PASS.PRS
 ‘Work is done here.’

These constructions illustrate the discourse function of passivization. The focus is placed on the event itself rather than on the performer of the action. This pattern is especially common in impersonal, institutional, and generic contexts.

3.4.4 Ditransitive Passive

The Gojri data demonstrate that passivization is not restricted to monotransitive predicates. Ditransitive verbs involving an Agent, a Recipient, and a Theme may also undergo passivization. In such constructions, the agent is suppressed or demoted, while the recipient and theme remain overtly expressed.

Active ram-ne sita-na kitab ditti
 Ram-ERG Sita-DAT book.F.ABS give.F.PST
 ‘Ram gave Sita a book.’

Passive sita-koɭu kitab ditti gəyi
 Sita-OBL book.F.NOM give.F.PTCP go.F.PASS.PST
 ‘Sita was given a book.’

The productivity of passive morphology with ditransitive predicates demonstrates that passivization in Gojri operates at the level of argument structure rather than being restricted to particular lexical verbs.

3.4.5 Reflexive-like Passive

A small number of constructions in the dataset exhibit properties that resemble both reflexive and passive structures. These constructions involve reflexive expressions such as əpɳa ap ‘oneself’, while simultaneously displaying passive morphology. Similar constructions have been described in the typological literature as reflexive-passive or middle-like constructions (Kemmer, 1993).

Active ram-ne ape dek^hyo
 Ram-ERG self.ACC see.M.PST
 ‘Ram saw himself.’

In the above sentence, ram functions as both the semantic Agent and the antecedent of the reflexive element ape ‘self’. The reflexive interpretation is possible because the agent and patient refer to the same participant.

Passive əpɳa ap-na dekhyo gyo
 self self-DAT see.M.PTCP go.M.PASS.PST
 *‘Himself was seen.’

The most striking property of this construction is that the antecedent (Ram) is completely removed from the clause during passivization. The reflexive element remains, but the participant that normally licenses the reflexive interpretation is no longer overtly present.

A similar pattern is observed in the second example.

Active sita-ne əpɳa ap-na səmb^halyo
 Sita-ERG self self-DAT manage.M.PST
 ‘Sita controlled herself.’

Passive əpɳa ap-na səmb^halo gyo
 self self-DAT manage.M.PTCP go.M.PASS.PST
 *‘Herself was controlled.’

The constructions presented above occupy a unique position within the passive system of Gojri because they combine properties of both passive and reflexive constructions. Unlike canonical passive constructions, where the agent and patient are distinct participants, reflexive constructions involve a single participant that simultaneously functions as both the initiator and the recipient of the action. Consequently, passivization of reflexive constructions creates an unusual syntactic configuration in which the antecedent of the reflexive expression is removed while the reflexive element remains overtly expressed.

Reflexive Passives and Binding Theory.

From the perspective of Government and Binding Theory (Chomsky 1981, 1986), these constructions are particularly interesting because they appear to violate one of the central principles governing reflexive pronouns.

In Binding Theory, reflexive pronouns such as himself, herself, and themselves are

classified as **anaphors**. According to **Principle A**:

“An anaphor must be bound within its governing category.”

In other words, a reflexive pronoun must have an antecedent within the same clause.

For example:

[Ram]_i saw [himself]_i

The NP Ram binds the reflexive himself, satisfying Principle A. However, if the antecedent is removed:

**Himself was seen.*

**Herself was controlled.*

The sentence becomes ungrammatical because the reflexive pronoun no longer has a binder. Since no antecedent is available, the reflexive pronoun violates Principle A and the sentence is rejected by native speakers of English.

The Gojri data suggest that passive morphology can apply even in environments where the semantic relationship between agent and patient is reflexive. Rather than eliminating the reflexive element, passivization suppresses the overt antecedent while leaving the reflexive phrase intact.

This behaviour indicates that the passive system of Gojri is structurally more permissive than that of English. The resulting constructions preserve traces of the original reflexive relationship despite the suppression of the external argument. Consequently, these constructions occupy an intermediate position between canonical passive constructions and reflexive constructions.

From a typological perspective, such constructions are relatively uncommon because reflexive constructions generally resist passivization due to the loss of the antecedent required by the reflexive pronoun. The Gojri examples therefore provide valuable evidence regarding the interaction between passivization, argument suppression, and anaphoric binding. They demonstrate that passive formation in Gojri can extend beyond prototypical transitive clauses and operate in domains that challenge traditional assumptions about reflexivity and passive voice.

3.5. Intransitive Verbs and Passive Restrictions

Although passive constructions are highly productive in Gojri, the process is not unrestricted. The data indicate that passivization is generally limited to predicates that contain an object or patient argument. Consequently, transitive and ditransitive verbs readily undergo

passivization, whereas intransitive verbs resist passive formation. This restriction is consistent with cross-linguistic observations regarding passive constructions and provides important evidence concerning the argument-structural requirements of passivization.

Typological studies have long noted that passive constructions are most naturally derived from transitive clauses because passivization involves the promotion of an object or patient to a more prominent grammatical position (Comrie, 1988; Shibatani, 1985). Intransitive verbs lack such an object and therefore do not provide an argument that can be promoted during passive formation. As a result, many languages either prohibit the passivization of intransitive verbs altogether or employ alternative impersonal constructions instead.

The Gojri data support this generalization. Intransitive predicates such as sleep, laugh, and run do not permit the formation of acceptable passive constructions. When speakers are asked to passivize such sentences, the resulting constructions are judged ungrammatical.

Example 1: Intransitive Verb ‘Sleep’

Active	ram	sutyō
	Ram.SG.M.NOM	sleep.M.PST
	‘Ram slept.’	

Passive	soyo	gəyo
	sleep.M.PTCP	go.M.PASS.PST
	‘was slept.’	

The active sentence contains only a single argument, namely the subject ram. Since there is no object available for promotion, passive formation fails. Native speaker judgements indicate that the passive form is unacceptable.

Example 2: Intransitive Verb ‘Laugh’

Active	bəččo	əsyō
	child.SG.M.NOM	laugh.M.PST
	‘The child laughed.’	

Passive	əsyō	gyō
	laugh.M.PTCP	go.M.PASS.PST
	*‘was laughed.’	

As in the previous example, the verb əsyō ‘laughed’ does not take an object. Since there is no patient argument, passivization cannot apply successfully. The resulting sentence

is judged ungrammatical by native speakers.

Example 3: Intransitive Verb ‘Run’

Active geri dərɪ
 girl.SG.F.NOM run.F.PST
 ‘The girl ran.’

Passive dərɔ gyo
 run.M.PTCP go.M.PASS.PST
 *‘was run.’

Again, the passive construction is unacceptable because the active clause contains only a single argument. The absence of an object prevents the restructuring of grammatical relations that normally characterizes passive formation.

The ungrammaticality of these examples can be explained through argument structure. Passive constructions involve the demotion or suppression of the external argument (agent) and the promotion of the internal argument (patient) to a more prominent grammatical position. However, intransitive verbs possess only one core argument. If this sole argument were suppressed, no participant would remain to occupy the primary argument position within the clause. Consequently, the structural conditions required for passivization cannot be satisfied.

This restriction can be represented schematically:

Transitive Clause

Agent + Patient + Verb

↓ Passive

Patient + Verb.PTCP + Auxiliary (ja-)

Intransitive Clause

Subject + Verb

↓ Passive

✗ No patient available for promotion

Thus, the passive derivation cannot proceed.

The Gojri data therefore suggest that passivization is fundamentally dependent on transitivity. The presence of an object or affected participant is a necessary condition for passive formation because it provides the argument that becomes prominent in the passive clause. Intransitive predicates fail to meet this requirement and consequently resist passivization.

From a theoretical perspective, these findings support the view that passive constructions operate as argument-structure changing processes rather than purely morphological transformations. The inability of intransitive verbs to undergo passivization demonstrates that passive formation is constrained by the availability of an internal argument and by the structural requirements of valency reduction. Therefore, the passive system of Gojri conforms closely to typological expectations regarding the relationship between transitivity and passivization.

3.6 Chapter Summary

This chapter examined the formation and structural properties of passive constructions in Gojri. The analysis demonstrated that passive formation in Gojri is primarily realized through a periphrastic construction consisting of a participial form of the lexical verb followed by the auxiliary *ja-* ‘go’. Unlike active constructions, passive clauses involve a systematic reorganization of grammatical relations, resulting in the demotion or suppression of the agent and the increased prominence of the patient.

The chapter first discussed the correspondence between active and passive constructions and showed that passivization preserves the semantic content of an event while restructuring its syntactic representation. It was demonstrated that the lexical verb appears in a participial form in passive constructions and combines with the auxiliary *ja-*, which functions as a marker of passive voice. Evidence from the dataset further indicated that the auxiliary has undergone delexicalization and no longer retains its original lexical meaning of motion when used in passive environments. Instead, it serves a grammatical function similar to the passive auxiliary found in several other Indo-Aryan languages.

The chapter also examined the consequences of passivization for argument structure. It was shown that passive constructions in Gojri involve the demotion of the agent from its privileged grammatical position and the promotion of the patient to a more prominent role within the clause. The agent may either be retained in an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu* or omitted entirely without affecting the grammaticality of the construction. This behaviour demonstrates that passive constructions in Gojri function as valency-reducing operations that alter the realization of arguments while preserving their semantic roles.

Further analysis revealed that the passive system of Gojri is not restricted to a single structural pattern. The data demonstrated the existence of canonical passives, agentive passives, agentless passives, ditransitive passives, and reflexive-like passives. While these constructions differ in the realization of arguments, they all exhibit the core properties of

passive voice, namely agent demotion and patient foregrounding. The discussion of reflexive-like passives further highlighted the interaction between passivization and anaphoric relations, showing that Gojri permits constructions that would be problematic under the binding constraints observed in languages such as English.

Finally, the chapter investigated the limitations of passive formation and demonstrated that intransitive verbs generally resist passivization. Since intransitive predicates lack an object available for promotion, the structural conditions necessary for passive derivation cannot be satisfied. This restriction supports the view that passivization in Gojri is fundamentally dependent upon argument structure and transitivity rather than being a purely morphological process.

Overall, the findings of this chapter establish that passivization in Gojri is a productive morphosyntactic process involving participial morphology, auxiliary formation, argument restructuring, and valency reduction. The analysis presented here provides the structural foundation for the following chapter, which examines the interaction of passive constructions with agreement, ergativity, tense, aspect, mood, and incapable constructions.

CHAPTER IV

MORPHOSYNTACTIC PROPERTIES OF PASSIVE CONSTRUCTIONS

4.1 Introduction

The previous chapter examined the structural formation of passive constructions in Gojri and demonstrated that passivization is realized through a periphrastic construction involving a participial lexical verb and the auxiliary *ja-* ‘go’. The analysis showed that passive formation results in significant changes to argument structure, including the demotion or suppression of the agent and the increased prominence of the patient. It was further established that passive constructions in Gojri constitute a productive morphosyntactic process that applies across a variety of construction types.

Building upon these findings, the present chapter investigates the morphosyntactic properties of passive constructions in Gojri. While Chapter 3 focused primarily on the formation and structural organization of passive clauses, the present chapter examines how passive constructions interact with other grammatical domains of the language. Particular attention is given to agreement, ergative alignment, tense, aspect, mood, modality, and incapable constructions. Together, these phenomena provide important insights into the behaviour of passive constructions within the broader grammatical system of Gojri.

One of the central questions addressed in this chapter concerns agreement. Agreement constitutes a fundamental grammatical mechanism through which verbs reflect features such as person, number, and gender of their associated arguments. In many Indo-Aryan languages, passive constructions trigger significant changes in agreement patterns because the patient assumes a more prominent grammatical role than in the corresponding active clause. The Gojri data reveal similar patterns, demonstrating that agreement in passive constructions is primarily controlled by the promoted patient rather than by the demoted agent. The chapter therefore examines agreement in detail through separate analyses of person, number, and gender.

The interaction between passivization and ergativity also forms an important component of the analysis. Gojri, like several other Indo-Aryan languages, exhibits ergative marking in particular tense-aspect environments. Passive constructions provide a useful testing ground for understanding how ergative alignment interacts with changes in grammatical relations. The chapter investigates whether ergative marking is preserved, neutralized, or restructured under passivization and examines the consequences of these

changes for agreement and argument realization.

In addition to agreement and ergativity, the chapter explores the behaviour of passive constructions across different tense-aspect categories. The dataset demonstrates that passive morphology occurs productively in present, past, and future environments, as well as across a range of aspectual distinctions including habitual, progressive, perfect, and perfective constructions. The analysis therefore investigates the distribution of passive morphology within the tense-aspect system and examines how auxiliary structures interact with passive formation. The collected data further reveal that passive constructions are compatible with a variety of modal environments, including ability, obligation, permission, conditional, and imperative constructions. These forms provide important evidence concerning the productivity and structural flexibility of the passive system in Gojri.

A particularly noteworthy feature of the dataset is the presence of incapable constructions. These constructions express the inability or impossibility of performing an action and exhibit interesting formal similarities with passive constructions. Because incapable constructions have received relatively little attention in the descriptive literature on Indo-Aryan languages, their analysis contributes not only to the understanding of Gojri grammar but also to broader discussions concerning voice, modality, and argument structure.

Overall, this chapter demonstrates that passive constructions in Gojri extend far beyond a simple change in verbal morphology. Rather, they interact systematically with agreement, alignment, tense-aspect-mood categories, and modal meanings. By examining these interactions in detail, the chapter provides a comprehensive account of the morphosyntactic behaviour of passive constructions and establishes the foundation for the subsequent discussion of their discourse and functional properties.

4.2 Agreement in Passive Constructions

Agreement is one of the most fundamental morphosyntactic processes in human language. It refers to the systematic correspondence between grammatical features of different elements within a clause, typically involving person, number, gender, case, or other grammatical categories. In many languages, verbal morphology reflects the grammatical properties of one or more arguments, thereby establishing formal relationships between predicates and their associated participants.

Within the Indo-Aryan language family, agreement has received considerable attention because of its interaction with case marking, ergativity, and voice. Languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Gujarati, and Kashmiri exhibit complex agreement systems in which verbal

agreement may be conditioned by person, number, gender, and the case properties of arguments (Masica, 1991; Butt, 2006). In passive constructions, these relationships often undergo significant restructuring because passivization alters the grammatical prominence of participants within the clause.

Cross-linguistically, passive constructions are frequently associated with changes in agreement patterns. Since passivization promotes the patient and demotes the agent, the grammatical element controlling agreement may shift from the active subject to the promoted patient. As Comrie (1988) observes, passive constructions often involve a reassignment of grammatical relations, resulting in corresponding changes in agreement behaviour. Similar observations have been reported for several Indo-Aryan languages, where passive constructions typically exhibit agreement with the promoted patient rather than the demoted agent.

The Gojri data reveal a comparable pattern. In active constructions, the agent generally occupies the most prominent grammatical position and serves as the primary participant in the clause. However, during passivization, the agent is either demoted to an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu* or omitted altogether. The patient consequently acquires greater syntactic prominence and becomes the primary controller of verbal agreement. Thus, agreement in Gojri passive constructions is closely linked to the restructuring of grammatical relations discussed in the previous chapter.

The importance of agreement becomes particularly evident when passive constructions are examined across different person, number, and gender combinations. The collected data demonstrate that passive morphology interacts systematically with each of these grammatical categories. Variations in person reveal how passive constructions behave with first-, second-, and third-person participants. Number distinctions provide evidence concerning the role of singular and plural patients in controlling agreement. Gender contrasts further illustrate how participial morphology and auxiliary forms reflect the grammatical gender of the promoted argument.

4.2.1 Person Agreement

Person is a grammatical category that distinguishes participants in a speech event according to their discourse roles. Traditionally, person is divided into first person, referring to the speaker, second person, referring to the addressee, and third person, referring to entities outside the speech situation. In many languages, verbal morphology reflects person distinctions through agreement with the grammatical subject. Passive constructions, however,

often modify the normal agreement relationships of a clause because they involve the demotion of the agent and the promotion of the patient.

In Indo-Aryan languages, passive constructions frequently provide important evidence regarding the interaction between agreement and grammatical relations. Since passivization alters the prominence of arguments, the participant controlling agreement may differ from that found in active constructions. The Gojri data reveal that person distinctions are preserved in the expression of the agent phrase, but they do not determine the agreement morphology of the passive predicate. Instead, the passive construction remains centered around the promoted patient. Consequently, changes in the person of the agent do not significantly affect the form of the passive verb.

The following sections examine passive constructions involving first, second, and third person agents.

(A) First Person

The first person category refers to the speaker, either singular ('I') or plural ('we'). The data demonstrate that passive constructions may be formed with both first person singular and first person plural agents.

First Person Singular

Active	ũ	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ũ	
	1SG	letter.F	write.1SG.PRS	
	'I write a letter.'			
Passive	mera	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i jaye
	1SG.OBL	by	letter.F	write.F.PTCP go.PASS.PRS
	'The letter is written by me.'			

Interestingly, no difference is observed between the masculine and feminine first person singular passive constructions. The passive predicate continues to appear as lik^hi jaye, agreeing with the feminine noun čitt^hi 'letter'. The gender of the agent does not influence the form of the passive predicate.

First Person Plural

Active	əm	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ən
	1PL	letter.F	write.1PL.PRS
	'We write a letter.'		

Passive	əmare	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ən	və
	1PL.OBL	by	letter.F	write.PTCP	PASS.PRS
‘The letter is written by us.’					

The first person plural example further demonstrates that passive constructions allow overt expression of the agent through the oblique phrase əmare koļu. However, the clause remains centered on the patient čitt^hi rather than on the first person plural agent.

(B) Second Person

The second person category refers to the addressee. The dataset contains both singular and plural/honorific forms.

Second Person Singular

Active	tu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε
	2SG	letter.F	write.2SG.PRS
‘You write a letter.’			

Passive	čitt ^h i	tera	koļu	lik ^h i	jaye
	letter.F	2SG.OBL	by	write.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
‘The letter is written by you.’					

Second Person Honorific/Plural

Active	təm	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε̃
	2PL/HON	letter.F	write.2PL.PRS
‘You write a letter.’			

Passive	t ^h ara	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ən	və
	2PL/HON.OBL	by	letter.F	write.PTCP	PASS.PRS
‘The letter is written by you.’					

The passive constructions involving second person agents display the same structural pattern observed with first person agents. The agent appears in an oblique phrase while the patient occupies the prominent position within the clause.

(C) Third Person

Third person refers to entities that are neither the speaker nor the addressee. The dataset includes both singular and plural third person agents.

Third Person Singular

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε
	Ram	letter.F	write.3SG.PRS
‘Ram writes a letter.’			

Passive	ram	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ən	vε
	Ram	by	letter.F	write.PTCP	PASS.PRS
‘The letter is written by Ram.’					

Third Person Plural

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε
	Ram	letter.F	write.3SG.PRS
‘Ram writes a letter.’			

Passive	ram	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ən	vε
	Ram	by	letter.F	write.PTCP	PASS.PRS
‘The letter is written by Ram.’					

The third person examples again exhibit the same passive pattern found with first and second person agents. Despite differences in person features, the passive construction remains structurally identical.

The examples presented above reveal that passive constructions in Gojri are compatible with all three person categories. First person, second person, and third person agents may all occur within passive clauses, typically expressed through an oblique phrase marked by *koļu*. However, the person features of the agent do not significantly affect the form of the passive predicate.

A comparison across all examples demonstrates that the patient *čitt^hi* remains constant, and correspondingly the passive predicate continues to exhibit feminine morphology. The differences observed across the constructions are restricted to the form of the oblique agent phrase (*mera koļu*, *tera koļu*, *thara koļũ*, *ram koļu*, *õna koļu*). Thus, person distinctions are expressed lexically through the agent phrase rather than through changes in passive morphology.

These data suggest that agreement in Gojri passive constructions is not controlled by the person features of the demoted agent. Instead, passive constructions primarily reflect the grammatical properties of the promoted patient. The passive system therefore supports the broader observation made in Chapter 3 that passivization restructures grammatical relations by reducing the prominence of the agent and foregrounding the patient. The person distinctions discussed here provide further evidence that the agent occupies a peripheral role in passive constructions, while the patient functions as the central grammatical participant.

4.2.2 Number

Number is a grammatical category that distinguishes between singular and plural referents. In many languages, number features are reflected through agreement morphology on verbs, adjectives, pronouns, and other grammatical elements. Within Indo-Aryan languages, verbal agreement is frequently sensitive to the number of the argument that controls agreement. Consequently, the study of number agreement provides an important diagnostic for determining which argument occupies the most prominent grammatical position within a clause.

Passive constructions are particularly useful for investigating number agreement because they involve a restructuring of grammatical relations. If passivization genuinely promotes the patient and demotes the agent, then number agreement should be determined by the promoted patient rather than by the demoted agent. The Gojri data strongly support this hypothesis. The passive predicate systematically reflects the number features of the patient, demonstrating that the promoted patient functions as the agreement controller.

The following examples illustrate the interaction between passivization and number agreement.

(A) Singular Object

The first set of examples involves singular objects. In these constructions, the patient is singular and the passive predicate exhibits singular agreement.

Example 1:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε		
	Ram	letter.SG.F	write.3SG.PRS		
	'Ram writes a letter.'				
Passive	ram	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	jaye
	Ram	by	letter.SG.F	write.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	'The letter is written by Ram.'				

Example 2:

Active	sima	roṭi	bəṇave		
	Sima	bread.SG.F	make.PRS		
	'Sima makes bread.'				
Passive	sima	koļu	roṭi	bəṇayi	jaye
	Sima	by	bread.SG.F	make.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	'The bread is made by Sima.'				

In both examples, the patient is singular (čitt^hi ‘letter’, roṭi ‘bread’). Correspondingly, the participial forms appear in singular agreement. The agent phrase remains peripheral and does not influence the agreement pattern.

(B) Plural Object

The second set of examples involves plural objects. Here, the patient occurs in plural form and the passive predicate reflects plural agreement.

Example 3:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε		
	Ram	letter.PL.F	write.PRS		
	‘Ram writes letters.’				
Passive	ram	koḷu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	jaye
	Ram	by	letter.PL.F	write.PL.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘The letters are written by Ram.’				

Example 4:

Active	sima	roṭiyā	bəṇave		
	Sima	bread.PL.F	make.PRS		
	‘Sima makes breads.’				
Passive	sima	koḷu	roṭiyā	bəṇai	jaye
	Sima	by	bread.PL.F	make.PL.F.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘The breads are made by Sima.’				

These examples clearly demonstrate the effect of number on passive agreement. When the singular nouns čitt^hi and roṭi are replaced by their plural counterparts čitt^hi and roṭiyā, the participial morphology also changes. The singular forms lik^hi and bəṇayⁱ correspondingly become plural forms lik^hi and bəṇayⁱ. This change occurs despite the fact that the agent remains unchanged.

The table demonstrates a direct relationship between the number of the patient and the form of the passive predicate. Whenever the patient changes from singular to plural, the participial morphology also changes. Crucially, the agent remains constant in each pair of examples. Therefore, the observed variation cannot be attributed to the agent.

This agreement pattern provides strong evidence that the promoted patient functions as the agreement controller in passive constructions. The passive predicate reflects the grammatical properties of the patient rather than those of the demoted agent.

The number agreement facts presented above constitute one of the clearest pieces of evidence for argument restructuring in Gojri passive constructions. In the active clauses, the agent occupies the most prominent grammatical position. However, following passivization, the patient assumes a central role within the clause and determines the form of the passive predicate.

The contrast between *čit̪hi* and *čit̪hi(pl)*, as well as between *roṭi* and *roṭiyā*, demonstrates that number agreement is sensitive to the grammatical properties of the patient. The agent remains unchanged, yet the passive morphology varies according to whether the patient is singular or plural. Such behaviour would be unexpected if the agent continued to function as the agreement controller.

From a theoretical perspective, these data support the claim that passivization involves a reassignment of grammatical prominence. The promoted patient acquires properties typically associated with subjects, including control over verbal agreement. Consequently, number agreement serves as a powerful diagnostic for identifying the syntactic effects of passivization.

The Gojri data therefore reveal that passive constructions systematically encode the number features of the promoted patient. This pattern further supports the broader argument developed throughout this chapter: passive constructions do not merely alter verbal morphology but fundamentally reorganize grammatical relations within the clause.

4.2.3 Gender

Gender constitutes one of the most important agreement categories in Indo-Aryan languages. Unlike English, where grammatical gender plays a relatively limited role, Indo-Aryan languages typically exhibit extensive gender-based agreement across verbs, adjectives, participles, and pronouns. Consequently, gender agreement provides an important diagnostic for identifying grammatical relations and determining which argument controls verbal morphology.

In passive constructions, gender agreement is particularly significant because it reveals whether agreement is controlled by the demoted agent or by the promoted patient. Since passive constructions alter the hierarchy of arguments, the agreement controller may shift from the agent to the patient. The Gojri data clearly demonstrate that passive predicates agree with the gender of the promoted patient rather than with the gender of the agent. This pattern is consistent with observations from other Indo-Aryan languages, where passive constructions frequently assign agreement control to the promoted object (Masica, 1991; Butt,

2006).

The following examples illustrate the interaction between passivization and gender agreement.

(A) Masculine Object

The first set of examples contains masculine objects. In each case, the passive predicate exhibits masculine agreement morphology.

Active ram dərvəjo khole
 Ram door.SG.M open.3SG.PRS
 ‘Ram opens the door.’

Passive ram koļu dərvəjo kholyo jaye
 Ram by door.SG.M open.M.PTCP go.PASS.PRS
 ‘The door is opened by Ram.’

In both examples, the objects (dərvəjo ‘door’) are masculine nouns. Correspondingly, the participial forms appear in masculine morphology (lıkhyo, kholyo).

(B) Feminine Object

The second set of examples contains feminine objects. Unlike the masculine examples above, the passive predicates now exhibit feminine agreement morphology.

Active ram-ne čit̪t̪^{hi} lɪk^{hi}
 Ram.3.SG-ERG letter.3.SG.F write.F.PST.INDF
 ‘Ram wrote a letter.’

Passive čit̪t̪^{hi} ram koļu lɪk^{hi} gyi
 letter.3.SG.F.NOM Ram.3.SG OBL write.F.PTCP go.F.PASS
 ‘The letter was written by Ram.’

In these examples, the objects (čit̪t̪hi ‘letter’) are feminine nouns. Consequently, the passive participles appear in feminine forms (lıkhi).

Masculine–Feminine Contrast

The agreement pattern becomes clearer when the masculine and feminine examples are compared directly.

The table reveals a systematic correspondence between the gender of the patient and the morphology of the passive predicate. Masculine nouns trigger masculine participial forms,

whereas feminine nouns trigger feminine participial forms.

An important observation emerges from all four examples: the agent remains identical throughout. In every sentence, the agent is *ram*. If passive agreement were controlled by the agent, the passive predicate would be expected to remain constant across all constructions.

The agent remains unchanged, yet the participial morphology varies. This demonstrates that gender agreement is determined by the patient rather than by the agent.

The gender agreement patterns found in Gojri passive constructions provide some of the strongest evidence for patient promotion and argument restructuring. While the person agreement data discussed in the previous section showed that changes in the person of the agent do not affect passive morphology, the present data reveal direct morphological consequences of changes in the gender of the patient.

The contrast between masculine forms (*likhyo*, *kholyo*) and feminine forms (*likhi*, *pəɽhi*) demonstrates that passive predicates are sensitive to the grammatical features of the promoted patient. Since the agent remains constant across all examples, the observed variation cannot be attributed to the agent. Rather, it reflects the gender properties of the patient, which has assumed the role of agreement controller following passivization.

From a theoretical perspective, these findings provide strong support for the analysis developed throughout this dissertation. Passive constructions in Gojri involve more than a change in verbal morphology; they entail a restructuring of grammatical relations whereby the patient acquires subject-like properties. One of the clearest manifestations of this restructuring is the transfer of agreement control from the agent to the patient.

Among the agreement categories examined in this chapter, gender agreement provides the most visible morphological evidence for this process. The passive predicate consistently reflects the gender of the promoted patient, thereby confirming that the patient occupies the most prominent grammatical position within the passive clause.

4.3 Passive and Ergativity

The relationship between passivization and ergativity has been one of the most extensively discussed topics in the study of Indo-Aryan syntax. This is largely because many modern Indo-Aryan languages exhibit split-ergative systems in which ergative marking appears only in specific tense-aspect environments, most commonly in perfective clauses. Languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Gujarati, and several Western Indo-Aryan varieties display ergative alignment under particular grammatical conditions, while exhibiting nominative-accusative alignment elsewhere. As a result, passive constructions provide an

important testing ground for understanding how ergative marking interacts with changes in grammatical relations.

Ergativity refers to a system of grammatical alignment in which the subject of a transitive verb (A) is treated differently from the subject of an intransitive verb (S) and the object of a transitive verb (O). In ergative systems, the subject of an intransitive verb and the object of a transitive verb pattern together, while the subject of a transitive verb receives a distinct ergative marking. Dixon (1994) identifies this distinction as one of the major alignment patterns found cross-linguistically. Indo-Aryan languages typically display split ergativity rather than fully ergative systems, with ergative marking often conditioned by aspect and tense.

Within Indo-Aryan linguistics, the connection between passive constructions and ergativity is particularly significant because several scholars have argued that the ergative constructions of modern Indo-Aryan languages historically developed from earlier passive constructions. Historical studies of Hindi and related languages suggest that ergative alignment emerged through the reanalysis of older participial and passive structures inherited from Old Indo-Aryan. Consequently, passive constructions and ergative constructions share a number of formal and functional similarities.

The Gojri data reveal that passive constructions interact with ergativity in a systematic manner. In active transitive clauses occurring in perfective environments, the agent may receive ergative marking. However, when such clauses undergo passivization, the ergative-marked subject loses its status as the grammatical subject and is demoted to an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu*. The ergative marker consequently disappears from the clause.

The following example illustrates this relationship.

Active : ram-ne čɪt̪ʰi lɪk̪ʰi

Passive : ram koḷu čɪt̪ʰi lɪk̪ʰi gyi

A comparison of these examples reveals an important structural change. In the active clause, the agent *ram* bears ergative marking (-ne). Following passivization, the ergative marker disappears and the agent is instead expressed through the oblique phrase *ram koḷu*. Thus, passivization neutralizes ergative marking by removing the grammatical environment in which ergativity is licensed.

This behaviour follows naturally from the argument-structure changes discussed in Chapter 3. In active ergative constructions, the agent functions as the external argument and occupies the highest position within the argument hierarchy. During passivization, however,

the external argument is demoted or suppressed. Since ergative case is associated with the external argument, its disappearance is expected. The promoted patient becomes the most prominent grammatical participant, and agreement is consequently controlled by the patient rather than by the former ergative subject.

An important consequence of this restructuring concerns agreement. In many Indo-Aryan ergative constructions, verbal agreement is associated with the object rather than with the ergative subject. The Gojri passive data extend this tendency further. Once the ergative subject is demoted, the promoted patient becomes the sole controller of agreement. As demonstrated in the previous sections, the passive participle consistently reflects the number and gender properties of the patient rather than those of the demoted agent. This pattern further supports the claim that passive constructions involve a reassignment of grammatical prominence.

From a typological perspective, the Gojri facts are consistent with observations made for several Indo-Aryan languages in which passive constructions either suppress ergative marking or replace it with oblique agent marking. The agent remains semantically recoverable, but it no longer occupies the syntactic position associated with ergative case. Instead, it appears as a peripheral participant expressed through a *by*-phrase equivalent. Similar interactions between passivization and ergative alignment have been reported for Hindi and other New Indo-Aryan languages.

The evidence therefore suggests that passive constructions in Gojri neutralize ergative alignment by removing the ergative-marked external argument from its privileged grammatical position. The ergative subject is replaced by an oblique agent phrase, while the patient assumes the central grammatical role within the clause. This interaction between passivization and ergativity provides further support for the analysis developed throughout this dissertation: passive constructions in Gojri are genuine argument-structure changing operations that reorganize case marking, agreement, and grammatical relations simultaneously.

4.4 Tense and Aspect in Passive Constructions

Tense and aspect are fundamental grammatical categories that contribute to the temporal interpretation of events and situations. While tense locates an event in relation to the time of speaking, aspect concerns the internal temporal structure of that event, indicating whether it is viewed as completed, ongoing, habitual, repetitive, or resulting in a particular state. Together, tense and aspect constitute essential components of the verbal system and

play a crucial role in the interpretation of clause structure across languages.

Within Indo-Aryan languages, tense and aspect are closely intertwined and are frequently expressed through complex verbal constructions involving participles and auxiliary verbs. Consequently, the interaction between passivization and tense-aspect marking has attracted considerable attention in the study of Indo-Aryan syntax. Previous research has demonstrated that passive constructions in languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Gujarati, and Kashmiri are not restricted to a single tense or aspectual environment but occur productively throughout the verbal system (Masica, 1991; Hook, 1992; Butt, 2006). The investigation of tense and aspect in passive constructions therefore provides valuable insights into the morphosyntactic behaviour of passive morphology and its integration into broader grammatical structures.

One of the central questions concerning passive constructions is whether passivization affects the temporal and aspectual interpretation of a clause. Cross-linguistically, passive constructions are generally regarded as voice alternations that alter the grammatical relations between participants while preserving the core semantic content of the event. Consequently, passive constructions are expected to retain the tense and aspectual properties of their corresponding active clauses. The extent to which this principle applies in Gojri constitutes an important focus of the present analysis.

The data collected for this study indicate that passive constructions in Gojri occur across a wide range of tense-aspect environments. Passive morphology is attested in present, past, and future tense constructions and is compatible with several aspectual distinctions, including habitual, progressive, perfect, and perfective forms. This distribution suggests that passivization in Gojri functions as a productive grammatical process rather than as a construction limited to specific verbal contexts.

The interaction of passivization with tense and aspect is particularly significant because passive constructions involve the combination of participial morphology with auxiliary elements. As tense-aspect structures become more complex, the passive construction frequently incorporates additional auxiliaries, resulting in layered verbal forms. The examination of such constructions provides important evidence regarding the organization of the Gojri verbal system and the grammatical status of passive morphology within that system.

Furthermore, tense-aspect categories provide a useful context for investigating other morphosyntactic properties of passive constructions. Certain tense-aspect environments introduce ergative marking in active clauses, thereby allowing an examination of how

passivization interacts with ergative alignment. Similarly, the behaviour of agreement patterns across different tense-aspect combinations offers further insight into the restructuring of grammatical relations associated with passive formation.

The present section therefore examines the interaction between passivization and tense-aspect marking in Gojri. Section 4.4.1 investigates passive constructions across present, past, and future tense environments, while Section 4.4.2 examines their behaviour in habitual, progressive, perfect, and perfective constructions. Through this analysis, the chapter aims to demonstrate that passive constructions in Gojri are fully integrated into the tense-aspect system of the language and remain productive across a wide range of grammatical contexts.

4.4.1 Present Tense Constructions

The present tense generally refers to situations that occur at the time of speaking or that hold true within the present temporal domain. In Gojri, passive constructions occur productively in present-tense environments and preserve the temporal interpretation of their active counterparts. The data reveal that passive constructions are compatible with various aspectual distinctions within the present tense, including habitual, progressive, and perfect constructions. While passivization modifies the grammatical relations between participants by demoting the agent and promoting the patient, it does not alter the basic temporal reference of the clause.

The present tense constructions examined in this section demonstrate that passive morphology is fully integrated into the verbal system of Gojri. The passive auxiliary combines with different tense-aspect configurations without affecting the fundamental meaning of the event. This productivity indicates that passivization functions independently of tense and can occur across multiple aspectual environments.

4.4.1.1 Present Habitual Passive

The habitual aspect refers to actions, events, or situations that occur regularly, repeatedly, or characteristically over a period of time. Habitual constructions describe general tendencies, routines, and repeated activities rather than events occurring at a specific moment. In passive constructions, the habitual interpretation is expected to remain unchanged despite the restructuring of grammatical relations.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions preserve habitual meaning while simultaneously promoting the patient and demoting the agent.

Example 1:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε		
	Ram	letter.F	write.HAB		
	‘Ram writes a letter.’				
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram	koļu	lik ^h ε	jaye
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘The letter is written by Ram.’				

Example 2:

Active	sima	roṭi	k ^h a ε		
	Sima	bread.F	eat.HAB		
	‘Sima eats bread.’				
Passive	roṭi	sima	koļu	k ^h aye	jaye
	bread.F	Sima	by	eat.PTCP	go.PASS.PRS
	‘The bread is eaten by Sima.’				

The passive constructions above retain the habitual interpretation of the corresponding active clauses. The events continue to denote regular or characteristic activities rather than single completed events. The only major structural difference is the reassignment of grammatical prominence from the agent to the patient. Agreement continues to be controlled by the promoted patient, while the agent appears in an oblique phrase marked by *koļu*.

These examples demonstrate that passivization does not affect the aspectual interpretation of habitual constructions. Instead, the passive construction preserves the habitual meaning while reorganizing the argument structure of the clause.

4.4.1.2 Present Progressive Passive

The progressive aspect denotes an event that is ongoing at the reference time. Progressive constructions focus on the internal development of an event and present it as incomplete or currently in progress. In many Indo-Aryan languages, progressive constructions involve auxiliary verbs and complex verbal morphology, making them particularly useful for examining the interaction between passivization and auxiliary structure.

The Gojri data indicate that progressive meaning is preserved under passivization. Furthermore, passive progressive constructions exhibit more complex auxiliary behaviour than habitual constructions, providing evidence for the integration of passive morphology into larger verbal structures.

Example 1:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε			
	Ram	letter.F	write.PROG			
	'Ram is writing a letter.'					
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram	koļu	lik ^h ən	vε	t ^h i
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	PASS	PROG
	'The letter is being written by Ram.'					

Example 2:

Active	sima	roṭi	k ^h aye			
	Sima	bread.F	eat.PROG			
	'Sima is eating bread.'					
Passive	sima	koļu	roṭi	k ^h aṇ	vε	
	Sima	by	bread.F	eat.PTCP	PASS	
	'The bread is being eaten by Sima.'					

The progressive passive constructions demonstrate that passivization is compatible with ongoing-event interpretations. The passive forms continue to denote actions that are unfolding at the reference time rather than completed events. These examples are particularly important because they reveal the interaction between passive morphology and auxiliary structures. The occurrence of additional verbal elements in progressive constructions suggests that passive morphology occupies a stable position within the verbal system and can co-occur with aspectual auxiliaries without affecting the interpretation of the clause.

From a typological perspective, the productivity of progressive passives is significant because progressive constructions frequently involve complex predicate formation in Indo-Aryan languages. The Gojri data indicate that passive morphology remains fully functional even within these more elaborate verbal structures.

4.4.1.3 Present Perfect Passive

The perfect aspect typically expresses a completed event whose consequences remain relevant at the reference time. Perfect constructions often establish a relationship between a prior event and a present state. In Indo-Aryan languages, perfect constructions are also closely associated with ergative alignment, making them particularly important for understanding the interaction between passivization and case marking.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions occur naturally within present

perfect environments and preserve the semantic interpretation of completed actions.

Example 1:

Active	ram	ne	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	
	Ram	ERG	letter.F	write.F.PFV	
	'Ram has written a letter.'				
Passive	ram	koḷu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h i	gəyi
	Ram	by	letter.F	write.F.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	'The letter has been written by Ram.'				

Example 2:

Active	gera	ne	roṭi	k ^h ati	
	boy	ERG	bread.F	eat.PFV	
	'The boy has eaten the bread.'				
Passive	roṭi	gera	koḷu	k ^h aye	gəyi
	bread.F	boy-OBL	by	eat.PTCP	go.F.PASS
	'The bread has been eaten by the boy.'				

These examples are particularly important because they illustrate the interaction between passivization and ergativity. In the active constructions, the agents *ram* and *gera* receive ergative marking through the postposition *ne*. However, following passivization, the ergative marker disappears and the agent is instead expressed through the oblique phrase *koḷu*. The patient simultaneously becomes the most prominent argument within the clause.

Thus, present perfect passive constructions provide additional evidence that passivization neutralizes ergative alignment. The ergative-marked subject loses its privileged grammatical status and is replaced by an oblique agent phrase, while agreement remains associated with the promoted patient. This behaviour supports the broader argument developed throughout this dissertation that passive constructions in Gojri involve a systematic restructuring of grammatical relations rather than a simple change in verbal morphology.

Overall, the data demonstrate that passive constructions are fully productive across present tense environments. Habitual, progressive, and perfect constructions all permit passivization while preserving their respective temporal and aspectual interpretations. The passive system therefore forms an integral part of the broader tense-aspect structure of Gojri and interacts systematically with agreement, auxiliary selection, and ergative alignment.

4.4.2 Past Tense Constructions

Past tense constructions refer to events and situations that occurred prior to the moment of speech. Within the verbal system of Gojri, passive constructions occur productively in past tense environments and retain the temporal interpretation of their corresponding active clauses. As observed in the present tense constructions discussed above, passivization does not alter the fundamental temporal reference of an event. Rather, it modifies the grammatical relations between participants by promoting the patient and demoting the agent.

The past tense data reveal that passive constructions are compatible with a variety of aspectual distinctions, including simple past, past progressive, and past perfect constructions. These forms are particularly important because they illustrate the interaction of passivization with perfective interpretation, auxiliary selection, and ergative alignment. Furthermore, past progressive and past perfect constructions provide evidence for increasingly complex auxiliary structures within the passive system of Gojri.

4.4.2.1 Past Habitual Passive

The past habitual passive typically denotes an event that occurred and was completed in the past. In Indo-Aryan languages, simple past constructions are frequently associated with perfective interpretation, presenting an event as a complete and bounded whole. The Gojri data indicate that passive constructions preserve this perfective interpretation while simultaneously restructuring grammatical relations.

Example 1:

Active	ram	ne	čitt ^h i	lɪk ^h i	
	Ram	ERG	letter.F	write.PFV	
	‘Ram wrote a letter.’				
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram	koɭu	lɪk ^h i	gəyi
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	go.PASS.PST
	‘The letter was written by Ram.’				

Example 2:

Active	gera	ne	roṭi	k ^h adi
	boy	ERG	bread.F	eat.PFV
	‘The boy ate the bread.’			

Passive	roṭi	gera	koḷu	k ^h aye	gəyi
	bread.F	boy	by	eat.PTCP	go.PASS.PST
	‘The bread was eaten by the boy.’				

The passive constructions preserve the completed-event interpretation associated with the simple past. The event is viewed as fully realized, and the passive transformation affects only the organization of grammatical relations. The patient becomes the most prominent argument, while the agent is expressed through the oblique phrase koḷu.

An additional observation concerns ergativity. In both active constructions, the agent bears ergative marking through the postposition ne. Following passivization, this ergative marking disappears and is replaced by the oblique agent phrase. Thus, the simple past passive provides further evidence that passivization neutralizes ergative alignment and promotes the patient to a central grammatical position.

4.4.2.2 Past Progressive Passive

The progressive aspect presents an event as ongoing rather than completed. When combined with past tense, the resulting construction refers to an activity that was in progress at a particular moment in the past. Past progressive constructions are especially significant because they involve the interaction of tense, aspect, and passive morphology within a single clause.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions readily occur in past progressive environments. Furthermore, these constructions reveal more complex auxiliary structures than those found in simple past passives.

Example 1:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε	tho	
	Ram	letter.F	write	PST	
	'Ram was writing a letter.'				
Passive	čitt ^h i	ram	koḷu	lik ^h ən	vait ^h i
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	PASS.PROG.PST
	'The letter was being written by Ram.'				

Example 2:

Active	gera	roṭi	k ^h aye	t ^h o
	boy	bread.F	eat	PST
	‘The boy was eating bread.’			

Passive	roṭi	gera	koḷu	kʰan	ve	thi
	bread.F	boy	by	eat.PTCP	PASS	PST
‘The bread was being eaten by the boy.’						

Unlike simple past constructions, these examples focus on the internal development of the event rather than its completion. The passive constructions continue to express actions that were ongoing at a reference point in the past. Consequently, passivization does not interfere with progressive interpretation.

These constructions are particularly noteworthy because they illustrate the interaction of passive morphology with additional auxiliary elements. The presence of forms such as *vaithi* and *ve thi* suggests that progressive meaning is achieved through auxiliary combinations layered onto the passive structure. Such auxiliary stacking is common in Indo-Aryan languages and provides evidence that passive morphology functions as an integrated component of the verbal system rather than as an isolated construction.

From a structural perspective, past progressive passives demonstrate that passive constructions remain productive even within relatively complex tense-aspect configurations. The patient continues to control agreement, while the agent remains demoted regardless of the increased complexity of the verbal predicate.

4.4.2.3 Past Perfect Passive

Past perfect constructions refer to events that were completed before another reference point in the past. Unlike simple past constructions, which merely locate an event in the past, past perfect constructions establish a temporal sequence between two past situations. They therefore involve a more complex temporal interpretation and frequently employ layered auxiliary structures.

The Gojri data reveal that passive constructions are fully compatible with past perfect environments and preserve the interpretation of prior completion.

Example 1:

Active	ram	ne	čittʰi	likʰi	tʰi	
	Ram	ERG	letter.F	write.PFV	PST	
‘Ram had written a letter.’						
Passive	čittʰi	ram	koḷu	likʰən	ve	tʰi
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	PASS	PST
‘The letter had been written by Ram.’						

Example 2:

Active	gera	ne	roṭi	k ^h a	di	thi
	boy	ERG	bread.F	eat	PFV	PST
	‘The boy had eaten the bread.’					
Passive	roṭi	gera	koḷu	k ^h aye	gəyi	
	bread.F	boy	by	eat.PTCP	go.PASS.PST	
	‘The bread had been eaten by the boy.’					

The past perfect passive preserves the notion of completion prior to a past reference point. As in the other passive constructions discussed above, the patient becomes the central grammatical participant, while the agent is relegated to an oblique phrase.

These constructions are particularly valuable because they reveal evidence of layered auxiliary structure. The combination of passive morphology with markers associated with perfect and past reference illustrates the ability of the Gojri verbal system to encode multiple grammatical meanings simultaneously. The passive construction therefore does not operate independently of tense and aspect but rather integrates fully into the broader verbal architecture of the language.

The past perfect data also reinforce the observations made regarding ergativity. Active clauses contain ergative-marked subjects, whereas passive clauses replace ergative marking with oblique agent phrases. Consequently, even in more complex tense-aspect environments, passivization continues to neutralize ergative alignment and promote the patient to the most prominent grammatical position.

Overall, the past tense constructions demonstrate that passive morphology remains productive across a range of temporal and aspectual contexts. Simple past, past progressive, and past perfect constructions all preserve their original temporal interpretations while exhibiting the characteristic properties of passivization, namely agent demotion, patient promotion, agreement restructuring, and the replacement of ergative marking with oblique agent marking.

4.4.3 Future Tense Constructions

Future tense constructions refer to events, actions, or situations that are expected to occur after the moment of speech. Unlike present and past tense constructions, which describe events that are ongoing or completed, future constructions express prediction, expectation, intention, or planned action. The examination of future passive constructions is important because it demonstrates whether passive morphology remains productive beyond

present and past temporal environments and whether the grammatical reorganization associated with passivization continues to operate in future-oriented contexts.

The Gojri data reveal that passive constructions occur productively in future tense environments. Similar to the present and past tense constructions discussed earlier, future passives preserve the temporal interpretation of the corresponding active clauses while simultaneously restructuring grammatical relations. The patient remains the most prominent argument of the clause, whereas the agent is demoted to an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu*. Furthermore, future constructions provide valuable evidence regarding the position of future marking within the verbal complex and its interaction with passive morphology.

4.4.3.1 Simple Future Passive

The simple future tense refers to events that are expected or predicted to occur after the time of speaking. In passive constructions, future reference is maintained while the patient is foregrounded and the agent is backgrounded. The Gojri data indicate that future passive constructions are structurally parallel to present and past passive constructions, differing primarily in their temporal interpretation.

Example 1:

Active	ram	čɪɽɪ ^h i	lɪk ^h ε	go		
	Ram	letter.F	write	FUT		
	‘Ram will write a letter.’					
Passive	čɪɽɪ ^h i	ram	koɭu	lɪk ^h əṇ	vε	gi
	letter.F	Ram	by	write.PTCP	PASS	FUT
	‘The letter will be written by Ram.’					

Example 2:

Active	sima	roṭi	bəṇavε	gi	
	Sima	bread.F	make	FUT	
	‘Sima will make bread.’				
Passive	roṭi	sima	koḷu	bəṇaye	gəyi
	bread.F	Sima	by	make.PTCP	PASS.FUT
	‘The bread will be made by Sima.’				

These examples demonstrate that passivization does not alter future reference. The events remain prospective and are interpreted as occurring after the moment of speech. The primary effect of passivization is therefore syntactic rather than temporal. The patient

becomes the grammatical focus of the clause, while the agent is relegated to a peripheral position.

An important observation concerns the expression of future marking. The future interpretation is not encoded solely on the lexical verb but emerges through the interaction of passive morphology and auxiliary elements. This indicates that future marking operates within the broader verbal complex rather than being restricted to a single verbal component. Consequently, passive constructions provide important evidence regarding the organization of tense marking in Gojri.

The examples further show that agreement continues to be associated with the promoted patient. The grammatical properties of *čitt^hi* and *roṭi* determine the form of the passive predicate, while the demoted agent has no effect on agreement morphology. Thus, future passive constructions exhibit the same agreement patterns observed throughout the passive system.

4.4.3.2 Future Perfect Passive

The future perfect refers to an event that will be completed prior to a future reference point. Semantically, it combines future reference with perfect interpretation, expressing the notion that an action will already have been completed at some later stage. Future perfect constructions are comparatively less common than simple future constructions but are particularly valuable for understanding the interaction between tense, aspect, and passive morphology.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions are compatible even with this more complex temporal configuration.

Example:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ə	reyo	vao	
	Ram	letter.F	write.PFV	COMPL	FUT	
	‘Ram will have written the letter.’					
Passive	ram	koḷu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε	gi	vεgi
	Ram	by	letter.F	write.PTCP	FUT	PASS.FUT
	‘The letter will have been written by Ram.’					

Unlike the simple future constructions discussed above, the future perfect combines two distinct temporal meanings. First, the event is located in the future. Second, the event is viewed as completed before another future reference point. The passive construction

preserves both interpretations while simultaneously maintaining the characteristic properties of passivization.

From a morphosyntactic perspective, future perfect passives provide important evidence for layered verbal structure. The construction contains multiple grammatical elements expressing completion, future reference, and passive voice. Such forms illustrate the capacity of the Gojri verbal system to encode several grammatical categories within a single predicate.

The future perfect data also reinforce the observations made throughout this chapter concerning argument restructuring. Even in highly complex tense-aspect environments, the passive construction continues to promote the patient and demote the agent. The agent remains optional and peripheral, whereas the patient functions as the central grammatical participant.

4.5 Mood and Modality in Passives

Mood and modality constitute important components of grammatical systems because they express a speaker's attitude toward an event, its likelihood, desirability, necessity, obligation, or possibility. While tense and aspect locate an event in time and describe its internal temporal structure, modality concerns the status of an event with respect to reality, possibility, obligation, permission, ability, and hypotheticality. Mood, on the other hand, refers to the grammatical means through which such modal meanings are expressed, including imperative, subjunctive, and conditional constructions.

The interaction between passivization and modality is of particular theoretical importance because modal constructions often involve complex predicate structures. In many languages, passive morphology may either occur within the scope of a modal element or the modal itself may affect the possibility of passivization. Consequently, the behaviour of passive constructions in modal environments provides valuable insights into clause structure, auxiliary selection, and argument realization.

The Gojri data reveal that passive constructions are generally compatible with a wide range of modal environments, including ability, obligation, permission, and conditional constructions. However, certain modal meanings impose restrictions on passive formation. The data also demonstrate that passive constructions interact differently with various mood categories, particularly imperative constructions, where passivization exhibits significant limitations. These patterns provide further evidence that passivization in Gojri is sensitive not only to syntactic structure but also to semantic and pragmatic factors.

4.5.1 Ability Modality

Ability modality expresses the capacity or capability of an agent to perform a particular action. Cross-linguistically, ability constructions often involve modal verbs corresponding to English *can* or *be able to*. In passive constructions, the crucial question is whether the modal element can co-occur with passive morphology and whether the modal interpretation is preserved.

The Gojri data demonstrate that passive constructions freely occur with ability modality.

Example:

Active	sima	roṭi	bəṇa	səkə		
	Sima.NOM	bread.F	make	can.MOD		
	‘Sima can make bread.’					
Passive	roṭi	sima	koḷu	bəṇaye	ja	səkə
	bread.F	Sima.3SG	by.OBL	make.PTCP	go.PASS	can.MOD
	‘The bread can be made by Sima.’					

This example demonstrates that the modal verb *səkə* remains fully compatible with passive morphology. The modal meaning of ability is preserved, while passivization promotes the patient and demotes the agent. Structurally, the modal appears outside the passive predicate, suggesting that the passive construction is embedded within the scope of the modal rather than replacing it.

This pattern indicates that passivization in Gojri does not interfere with the expression of ability and that modal constructions can successfully host passive predicates.

4.5.2 Obligation Modality

Obligation modality expresses a requirement, duty, or necessity imposed upon an individual. Such constructions often indicate that an action ought to be performed.

Example:

Active	sima	ne	roṭi	bəṇani	ε
	Sima.3SG.F	ERG	bread.F	make.INF	be.PRS
	‘Sima has to make bread.’				
Passive	roṭi	sima	koḷu	bəṇani	ε
	bread.F	Sima.3SG.F	by.OBL	make.INF	be
	‘The bread has to be made by Sima.’				

The passive constructions preserve the obligatory interpretation of the active clauses. The responsibility associated with the event remains intact, although the focus shifts from the agent to the affected participant. The ability of obligation markers to combine with passive morphology further demonstrates the productivity of the passive system across different modal environments.

4.5.3 Permission Modality

Permission constructions express authorization or allowance to perform an action. Unlike ability constructions, which concern capability, permission constructions concern social or contextual authorization.

Example:

Active	tu	dərwazo	k ^h ol	səkə		
	you.2SG	door.M	open.PTCP	may/can.MOD		
	‘You may open the door.’					
Passive	dərwazo	tera	koļu	k ^h olyo	ja	səkə
	door.M	you.2SG	by.OBL	open.PTCP	PASS	may/can.MOD
	‘The door may be opened by you.’					

The permission interpretation remains available in the passive construction. Interestingly, native-speaker judgments indicate that intonation and discourse context play a significant role in distinguishing permission from ability. This suggests that the modal element itself may be semantically underspecified, with contextual factors contributing to the final interpretation.

4.5.4 Necessity and Passive Restrictions

Not all modal constructions permit passivization. An important restriction emerges in constructions expressing strong necessity.

Example:

Active	ram	ne	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ni	pəgi
	Ram	DAT	letter.F	write.INF	must.MOD
	‘Ram will have to write the letter.’				
Passive	Ungrammatical / Not accepted by speakers				

The absence of an acceptable passive counterpart suggests that certain strong necessity constructions resist passivization. One possible explanation is that these

constructions assign a highly prominent semantic role to the obligated participant. Because passivization suppresses or demotes this participant, the resulting construction becomes difficult to interpret. This restriction indicates that semantic factors may influence the availability of passive constructions in Gojri.

4.5.5 Imperative Constructions

Imperatives express commands, requests, instructions, or directives. Because imperatives are inherently directed toward an addressee, they often place strong emphasis on the agent. Consequently, passive imperatives are cross-linguistically less common and frequently restricted.

Example 1:

Active	roṭi	k ^h ao	
	bread.F	eat.IMP	
	‘Eat the bread!’		
Passive	roṭi	k ^h an	vε
	bread.F	eat.PTCP	be.PASS
	‘Let the bread be eaten.’		

Example 2:

Active	dərwazo	k ^h olo	
	door.M	open.IMP	
	‘Open the door!’		
Passive	dərwazo	k ^h oləṇ	vε
	door.M	open.PTCP	be.PASS
	‘Let the door be opened.’		

These examples suggest that passive imperatives are possible when the construction is interpreted less as a direct command and more as a directive concerning the affected participant.

4.5.6 Negative Imperatives

Example:

Active	čitt ^h i	na	lik ^h o	
	letter.F	NEG	write.IMP	
	'Do not write the letter.'			
Passive	čitt ^h i	na	lik ^h e	jaye
	letter.F	NEG	write	go.PASS
	'The letter should not be written.'			

The passive negative imperative is more acceptable than the corresponding positive passive imperative because the construction focuses on preventing an event rather than directing a specific individual to perform it.

4.5.7 Subjunctive and Conditional Constructions

Subjunctive and conditional constructions express possibility, uncertainty, hypothetical situations, and desired outcomes. These constructions are highly compatible with passive morphology.

Subjunctive Example:

Active	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε	
				'May Ram write a letter.'
Passive	ram	koļu	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε jaye
				'May the letter be written by Ram.'

Conditional Example:

Active	əgər	ram	čitt ^h i	lik ^h ε	to	čəŋo	vəgo
							'If Ram writes the letter, it will be good.'
Passive	čitt ^h i	əgər	ram	koļu	lik ^h e	jaye	to čəŋo vəgo
							'If the letter is written by Ram, it will be good.'

The compatibility of passive constructions with subjunctive and conditional environments further demonstrates the productivity of the passive system. The hypothetical interpretation remains unchanged, while the patient continues to occupy the central grammatical position.

The modal data reveal that passive constructions in Gojri are highly productive and can occur within a wide range of modal environments. Ability, obligation, permission, subjunctive, and conditional constructions readily permit passivization, indicating that

passive morphology can be embedded under modal operators without difficulty. Imperative constructions display greater restrictions, while strong necessity constructions appear resistant to passivization altogether. These patterns suggest that although passivization is primarily a morphosyntactic process, its distribution is also influenced by semantic and pragmatic factors associated with particular modal meanings.

4.6 Chapter Summary

This chapter examined the morphosyntactic properties of passive constructions in Gojri, focusing on their interaction with agreement, ergativity, tense-aspect marking, and modality. The analysis demonstrated that passive constructions in Gojri involve systematic restructuring of grammatical relations whereby the patient is promoted to a more prominent grammatical position and the agent is demoted to an oblique phrase marked by *koḷu*. This restructuring affects several components of the grammar, including agreement, case marking, and verbal morphology.

The discussion of agreement revealed that passive constructions retain regular agreement patterns. Verbal agreement is controlled by the promoted patient rather than the demoted agent, and distinctions of person, number, and gender continue to be reflected in the passive predicate. The data showed that passive constructions are sensitive to the grammatical properties of the patient, providing evidence that agreement relations are reorganized following passivization.

The chapter further explored the relationship between passivization and ergative alignment. Active perfective clauses exhibit ergative marking on the subject through the marker *ne*, whereas passive constructions neutralize ergative alignment by suppressing the ergative subject and replacing it with an oblique agent phrase. The resulting constructions display nominative-like behaviour in which the patient assumes the central grammatical role. These findings support the claim that passivization in Gojri involves more than a simple change in verbal morphology and instead results in substantial reorganization of argument structure.

The examination of tense and aspect demonstrated that passive constructions are fully productive across the verbal system. Passive forms occur in present, past, and future tense environments and are compatible with habitual, progressive, perfect, and perfective aspectual distinctions. Importantly, passivization does not alter the temporal or aspectual interpretation of the clause. Rather, passive morphology co-occurs with tense-aspect marking and preserves the semantic content of the corresponding active construction. The data also revealed the

presence of auxiliary combinations and layered verbal structures, particularly in progressive and perfect constructions, indicating that passive morphology is fully integrated into the tense-aspect system of the language.

The interaction between passivization and mood-modality provided additional evidence for the productivity of passive constructions. Ability, obligation, permission, subjunctive, and conditional constructions readily permit passivization, demonstrating that passive morphology can be embedded under modal operators without difficulty. However, the data also revealed certain restrictions. Strong necessity constructions were not accepted by native speakers in passive form, and imperative constructions displayed varying degrees of acceptability. These restrictions suggest that the availability of passive constructions is influenced not only by morphosyntactic factors but also by semantic and pragmatic considerations.

Taken together, the findings of this chapter show that passivization in Gojri constitutes a highly productive morphosyntactic process that interacts systematically with agreement, case marking, tense, aspect, mood, and modality. The passive system is therefore deeply integrated into the grammatical architecture of the language and cannot be treated as an isolated verbal phenomenon. The patterns identified in this chapter provide the foundation for the discussion in the following chapter, which examines incapable constructions and their relationship to passive morphology and argument structure in Gojri.

CHAPTER V

CONCLUSION

This dissertation set out to provide a comprehensive account of passivization in Gojri, an Indo-Aryan language that remains relatively under-documented in linguistic research. Drawing on primary data collected from native speakers, the study examined the morphosyntactic structure, argument-structural properties, and discourse functions of passive constructions in the language. The analysis contributes both to the descriptive grammar of Gojri and to broader typological discussions of voice and valency-changing operations in Indo-Aryan languages.

One of the central findings of this study is that Gojri employs a periphrastic strategy of passivization, in which the lexical verb appears in a participial form and combines with the auxiliary *ja-* ‘go’. The auxiliary, in passive constructions, no longer retains its original lexical meaning of motion but functions as a grammatical marker of passive voice. This provides clear evidence for a process of delexicalization and grammaticalization, aligning Gojri with other Indo-Aryan languages such as Hindi and Punjabi, where similar developments have been observed. Passive formation in Gojri therefore depends on the interaction between participial morphology and an auxiliary system that encodes tense, aspect, and passive interpretation.

The study further demonstrates that passivization in Gojri is fundamentally an argument-structure changing operation. Passive constructions involve the demotion or suppression of the agent and the promotion of the patient or theme to a more prominent grammatical position. This restructuring results in significant changes in grammatical relations, whereby the patient assumes subject-like properties and becomes the primary argument controlling agreement. Importantly, while syntactic relations are reorganized, the underlying semantic roles remain unchanged, indicating a clear distinction between semantic structure and grammatical encoding.

A closely related finding concerns valency reduction. Passive constructions in Gojri systematically reduce the prominence of the external argument (agent), thereby altering the valency of the predicate. In many cases, the agent is either expressed as an oblique phrase or omitted entirely, resulting in constructions that foreground the patient or the event itself. This behaviour confirms that passivization in Gojri operates as a valency-decreasing process, consistent with typological observations across languages. The study also shows that valency reduction is not merely a structural phenomenon but is closely tied to discourse

considerations, particularly in contexts where the agent is unknown, irrelevant, or intentionally backgrounded.

The analysis of agreement patterns reveals that passive constructions in Gojri are controlled by the promoted patient rather than the demoted agent. Verbal agreement reflects person, number, and gender features of the patient, demonstrating a clear shift in agreement alignment under passivization. This finding is particularly significant in the context of Indo-Aryan languages, where agreement systems often interact with ergativity and case marking. The study shows that passive constructions in Gojri interact with ergative alignment, especially in perfective contexts, and that passivization can neutralize or alter alignment patterns by reorganizing grammatical relations.

Another important contribution of this study lies in its examination of different types of passive constructions. The data reveal that Gojri exhibits a range of passive types, including canonical passives, agentive passives, agentless passives, ditransitive passives, and reflexive-like passives. This diversity indicates that passivization in Gojri is not a single uniform process but rather a system of related constructions that vary in the degree of agent expression and argument restructuring. The existence of reflexive-like passive constructions further highlights the fluid boundaries between voice categories and suggests the presence of intermediate constructions resembling middle voice phenomena.

The study also demonstrates that passive constructions in Gojri are highly productive across tense-aspect-mood (TAM) categories. Passive morphology is attested in present, past, and future contexts, as well as in habitual, progressive, perfective, modal, and incapable constructions. This wide distribution indicates that passivization is fully integrated into the verbal system of the language and is not restricted to specific grammatical environments. The interaction between passivization and TAM marking further underscores the complexity of Gojri morphosyntax and its relevance for typological studies.

Beyond morphosyntactic structure, the study highlights the discourse-pragmatic functions of passive constructions. Passivization in Gojri is frequently employed to background the agent, foreground the patient, and shift the focus of the clause toward the event itself. Agentless passives, in particular, are commonly used in generic, institutional, and impersonal contexts, where the identity of the agent is either unknown or irrelevant. These findings support functional approaches to passivization, which emphasize its role in information structure and discourse organization rather than viewing it solely as a formal syntactic operation.

While the study provides a detailed account of passivization in Gojri, certain

limitations must be acknowledged. The data were collected from a limited number of speakers residing in a university setting rather than from a broader speech community. As a result, the study does not fully capture sociolinguistic variation, dialectal differences, or patterns of usage across different regions. Additionally, the analysis is primarily descriptive and does not engage extensively with formal theoretical models such as Minimalism or Role and Reference Grammar.

These limitations also point to several directions for future research. Further studies could investigate passivization across different dialects of Gojri to examine regional variation and language contact effects. A comparative analysis with other Indo-Aryan languages, particularly those exhibiting ergative alignment, would provide deeper insights into the typology of passive constructions. Future research could also explore the relationship between passive, middle, and reflexive constructions in greater detail, as well as the diachronic development of passive morphology in Gojri. In addition, psycholinguistic and discourse-based studies could examine how passive constructions are processed and used in natural communication.

In conclusion, this dissertation demonstrates that passivization in Gojri constitutes a systematic and productive grammatical process that interacts with multiple components of grammar, including argument structure, agreement, ergativity, valency, and discourse organization. By documenting and analysing passive constructions in Gojri, the study not only enriches the descriptive understanding of the language but also contributes to broader theoretical discussions on voice and morphosyntactic variation in Indo-Aryan languages. The findings underscore the importance of studying under-documented languages, as they provide valuable empirical evidence that can refine and expand existing linguistic theories.

Limitations of the Study

While the present study provides a detailed account of passivization in Gojri, certain limitations must be acknowledged. These limitations primarily arise from constraints related to data collection, scope, and methodology.

One of the major limitations of this study is that fieldwork could not be conducted in the natural speech community. Due to logistical and institutional constraints, the research team was unable to travel to Gojri-speaking regions for in-situ data collection. As a result, the data were collected from native speakers residing in a university environment. Although these speakers provided reliable linguistic judgements, the absence of naturalistic field data may have limited the range of constructions observed, particularly those influenced by discourse

context, sociolinguistic variation, and spontaneous speech.

Closely related to this is the issue of limited dataset size. The study is based on approximately ninety elicited sentences, which, while sufficient for identifying core patterns of passivization, may not fully capture the entire range of variation present in the language. Certain marginal constructions, dialectal differences, and low-frequency patterns may therefore remain undocumented.

Another limitation concerns the restricted number of language consultants. The analysis relies on data from a small group of speakers, which may not adequately represent the full diversity of Gojri as spoken across different regions. Given the wide geographical distribution of Gojri, dialectal variation is likely to play an important role in shaping grammatical patterns.

Finally, the study adopts a primarily descriptive and functional approach, without extensively engaging with formal theoretical frameworks such as Minimalism, Lexical Functional Grammar, or Role and Reference Grammar. While this approach allows for a clear empirical description, it limits the extent to which the findings can be directly integrated into formal syntactic theory.

Scope for Further Research

Firstly, future research should aim to develop a larger and more diverse dataset, including data from speakers across different regions such as Jammu, Himachal Pradesh, Uttarakhand, and Rajasthan. A comparative dialectal study would be particularly valuable in identifying regional variation in passive formation, agreement patterns, and auxiliary usage.

Secondly, a comparative Indo-Aryan perspective would significantly enhance our understanding of passivization in Gojri. By comparing Gojri with closely related languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Dogri, and Rajasthani, researchers can identify shared typological features as well as language-specific innovations, particularly in relation to ergativity, agreement, and auxiliary systems.

Another important direction concerns the theoretical analysis of passivization. Future studies could examine Gojri passive constructions within formal frameworks such as Minimalism or Role and Reference Grammar, focusing on issues such as argument structure, case assignment, and syntactic movement. Such analyses would help situate Gojri within broader theoretical debates on voice and grammatical relations.

Further research is also needed on the interface between passivization and discourse-pragmatics. Investigating how passive constructions function in natural discourse, particularly

in narrative, conversation, and institutional contexts would provide deeper insights into their role in information structure, topic management, and focus.

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APPENDIX A: GLIMPSES OF THE COURSE



Figure 1: Last day of our Writing Grammars class



Figure 2: Presentation Day

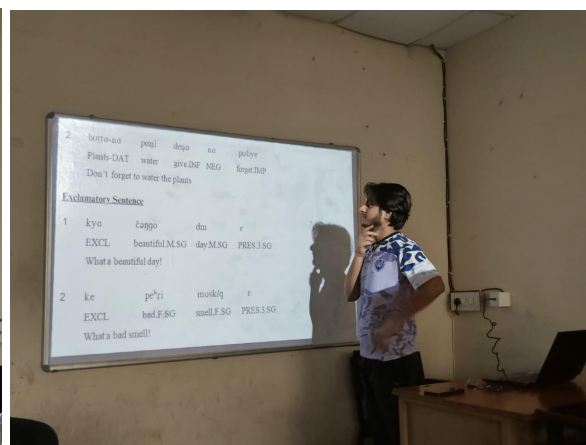


Figure 3: Reviewing PPT